

Trigonometry on the Surcomplex Plane

Canonical Phases, Arbitrary-Scale Geometry,
and Infinitesimal Degeneration

September 21, 2026

Abstract

The surcomplex plane is the algebraically closed class field $\mathbf{SC} = \mathbf{No}[i]$ with Euclidean norm $|x + iy| = \sqrt{x^2 + y^2}$. Its lengths may be infinite or infinitesimal, but every direction has a *finite* surreal angle. We make that observation into a trigonometric theory. Hahn summation gives canonical sine and cosine on finite surreal arguments, and identifies the full unit circle $\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$ with the additive group of finite surreals modulo $2\pi\mathbb{Z}$; the circle splits canonically as an ordinary phase times an additive infinitesimal phase, and its angular and chordal distances have the same valuation.

We prove exact analogues of the angle-sum, cosine, sine, tangent, half-angle, Heron, Euler, angle-bisector, trigonometric Ceva, inscribed-angle and Ptolemy theorems at arbitrary surreal scale, together with the spherical sine and cosine laws and hyperbolic triangle laws in the full surreal Poincaré disk. Valuation formulas convert each of these into an exact scale dictionary; a relative flatness threshold and a quadratic triangle-inequality defect formula quantify degeneration; and near-tangent intersections exhibit exact square-root splitting with a quantified loss of angular precision. Three different stability certificates are proved and kept apart: a sharp $\sigma > 2\kappa$ root-stability bound with its sharpness proposition, a conditioned inverse-cosine expansion with second-order term, and a support-controlled exact cluster multiplicity. A canonical complex extension exists on the strip of arguments with finite real part and arbitrary surreal imaginary part; there the sine is surjective with completely determined fibres, trigonometric polynomials algebraize to ordinary-degree polynomials, and one obtains sharp root counts, finite Fourier inversion and Parseval identities, and a Fejér–Riesz factorization over the real closed surreal field, with a degree-two polynomial that is positive at every ordinary angle and negative at a finite nonordinary one.

Finally we classify the freedom in extending circular trigonometry to infinite real arguments. The Ehrlich–Kaplan integer-part normalization is one member of a character family; every member necessarily acquires infinite periods, and none admits a bounded common-domain Hahn-analytic description at infinite frequency.

Status and provenance. This is one merged report assembled from three independently written manuscripts of September 21, 2026. It develops three supplied unpublished manuscripts rather than presenting their results as published literature. Classical identities and established surreal analytic machinery are identified as such. The literature search behind it was targeted rather than exhaustive; no priority claim and no claim to have solved a named published open problem is made; nothing here is formally verified, and the accompanying symbolic checks validate displayed examples rather than machine-checking the general proofs. Per-theorem non-claims are stated where they arise and collected in [section 18.4](#).

Contents

1	The organizing distinction: lengths versus angles	4
1.1	What comes from the supplied manuscripts	4
1.2	Conventions: one symbol per concept	5
1.3	Conventions: which coefficient ring each statement lives over	6
1.4	The workspace, and what it does not authorize	6
2	Surreal scalars and support-controlled evaluation	7
2.1	Norm, valuation, and standard part	7
2.2	Strong summability and the support lemma	7
2.3	Lifting ordinary analytic germs	9
3	Canonical sine and cosine on finite angles	10
3.1	Definition without a divergent global series	10
3.2	Order, monotonicity, and exact leading orders	11
3.3	What normalizes the finite pair	12
4	The full unit circle and the group of angles	12
4.1	Infinitesimal exponential and logarithm	12
4.2	The finite phase theorem	13
4.3	Rational coordinates and angle division	14
5	Inverse functions and the angular metric	15
5.1	Inverse trigonometry on its full natural surreal domains	15
5.2	Chord distance and infinitesimal angular accuracy	16
6	Triangles at arbitrary surreal scales	18
6.1	Angles and the exact angle sum	18
6.2	Cosine, sine and tangent laws	18
6.3	Reconstruction from side or angle data	19
6.4	Area, half-angles, and the two radii	20
7	Bisectors, concurrency, chords, and cyclic quadrilaterals	21
7.1	The cevian sine ratio and trigonometric Ceva	21
7.2	Chords, inscribed angles, and Ptolemy	22
7.3	Quadrance and spread	23
8	Valuation geometry and extremely thin triangles	23
8.1	An exact dictionary between sides, angles and area	23
8.2	The triangle-inequality defect	24
8.3	Flat triangles: the normalized form and the relative threshold	25
9	Trigonometric intersections, contact, and conditioning	28
9.1	A complete first-harmonic intersection theorem	28
9.2	Square-root splitting and its conditioning	28
9.3	The rank-two algebra that survives the collision	30
9.4	A coupled four-point angular collision	30
9.5	Three stability certificates, and what each is for	31
10	Canonical complex trigonometry on a class-sized strip	34
10.1	Real exponential and hyperbolic functions	34
10.2	Two complementary strips and an exponential quotient	34
11	Trigonometric polynomials and sharp algebraic root counts	36

12 Support-controlled lifting of trigonometric zero clusters	37
13 Finite Fourier calculus and positivity on the surreal circle	38
13.1 Exact quadrature by roots of unity	39
13.2 Coefficientwise integration and Parseval	39
13.3 Dirichlet and Fejér kernels, and why they are not an approximation theorem	40
13.4 Fejér–Riesz factorization with surcomplex coefficients	41
14 Spherical trigonometry over No	43
15 Hyperbolic trigonometry in the full surreal disk	44
15.1 A disk metric including infinitesimal boundary distances	44
15.2 Hyperbolic cosine and sine laws	45
16 Coherent arc length, sector area, and the limit pitfall	46
17 Infinite real phases: a canonical choice, its classification, and two obstructions	47
17.1 Why the Maclaurin series is not the definition	47
17.2 The finite-part projection and the canonical normalization	47
17.3 Classification of all circular group-law extensions	49
17.4 Two coherence obstructions, both over the fixed-domain ring	50
18 Conclusions and dependency audit	51
18.1 What the theory establishes	51
18.2 A dependency audit	52
18.3 Reproducible checks and their limits	52
18.4 What is not proved	53
A A compact formula sheet with domain reminders	55
B Worked formal series	56
C Notation and domain guide	56
References	57

1 The organizing distinction: lengths versus angles

Let $z = x + iy$ with $x, y \in \mathbf{No}$ and $i^2 = -1$; this is the meaning of a surcomplex number throughout. The field structure and real closedness of $\mathbf{No}$, and the algebraic closedness of $\mathbf{SC}$, are established parts of surreal number theory [4, 5, 6, 7, 10]. They already give distances with nonnegative square roots, two-dimensional determinants measuring oriented area, and exact solutions of finite linear systems.

The analytic difficulty is different. The expression

$$\sum_{n \geq 0} \frac{(-1)^n x^{2n+1}}{(2n+1)!}$$

cannot simply be declared to define $\sin x$ for every surreal x . At a nonzero ordinary real argument, infinitely many summands already share one Hahn exponent. At a positive infinite argument the monomial supports run in the wrong direction and their union is not well ordered. Ordinary real convergence repairs neither defect in the surreal fine topology.

There is nevertheless a canonical and sufficient theory of geometric angles. If $z \neq 0$, its normalized direction $z/|z|$ has coordinates in $[-1, 1]$, hence an ordinary standard part on the usual unit circle together with an infinitesimal angular correction. Consequently the trigonometry of *all* surcomplex triangles requires no choice of $\sin \omega$. The construction applies to $1 + i\omega$, to $\omega + i$, and to $\omega^{-\omega} + i\omega^\omega$ exactly as it applies to $1 + i$.

Three assertions must be kept apart, and this article keeps them apart everywhere.

1. An angle has a cosine and a sine defined as the coordinates of a unit vector. This is algebra over a real closed field; it needs no transcendental evaluation.
2. A *finite* surreal number has a canonical cosine and sine, obtained from the ordinary analytic germs by strongly summable infinitesimal Taylor evaluation.
3. Every surreal number, ω included, has a uniquely specified oscillatory phase compatible with those finite values.

We prove that (1) and (2) agree and suffice for all plane, spherical and hyperbolic geometry below. Assertion (3) requires additional data; [section 17](#) says exactly which data, and what is lost whichever choice is made.

Object	Domain used here	Governing construction
Lengths and coordinates	All of $\mathbf{No}$ and $\mathbf{SC}$	Ordered-field algebra and square roots
Circular angles	Finite $\theta \in \mathbf{No}$, modulo $2\pi\mathbb{Z}$	Ordinary value plus infinitesimal Taylor series
Inverse tangent	Every $x \in \mathbf{No}$	Direction of $1 + ix$
Complex sine and cosine	$\{x + iy : x \text{ finite, } y \in \mathbf{No}\}$	Finite phase and Gonshor exponential
Trigonometric polynomials	Ordinary finite degree, arbitrary surcomplex coefficients	Laurent-polynomial algebra on the unit circle
Sine at infinite real inputs	Only after an extension is specified	An additional additive-group character

1.1 What comes from the supplied manuscripts

The supplied analysis manuscript [1] provides the notation $t^\gamma = \omega^{-\gamma}$ for Conway normal-form monomials, the set-sized support convention, strong summability, standard parts, Taylor evaluation

on infinitesimal thickenings, coefficientwise contour and integral functionals, the fine-local logarithm, and examples of nonunique global fine-analytic exponentials. We retain those conventions and reprove the elementary parts needed here.

The two further supplied manuscripts [2, 3] concern finite *zero algebras* and analytic intersections rather than Euclidean triangle geometry. Their relevant themes are conservation of multiplicity, positive-support coefficient recursion, collision-stable residues, and loss of precision near a singular Jacobian; the threshold $\sigma > 2\kappa$ of [3, §9] is the direct antecedent of [theorem 9.7](#) and [theorem 9.9](#). We do not assume their several-variable Noetherianity, division, Nullstellensatz or residue theorems to prove the geometric results below; each trigonometric instance is proved directly.

Ehrlich and Kaplan construct canonical global trigonometric functions and a canonical surcomplex exponential from the initial integer part [8, §11]; that construction is recorded in [theorem 17.1](#) and [theorem 17.2](#) and is *not* claimed as a new definition. Restricted analytic evaluation on surreal fields is likewise established [7, Theorem 2.1]. Classical trigonometric identities and inverse-function expansions are recorded in [11]; algebraic approaches to trigonometry over general fields are in [13, 14]; the classical scalar Fejér–Riesz context is in [12]. A proof of an analogue is not by itself evidence that its exact formulation is absent from all previous literature.

1.2 Conventions: one symbol per concept

Because this report merges three drafts with three notations, the following choices are fixed once and used without exception thereafter. Synonyms appearing in the source manuscripts are recorded here and nowhere else.

- **Unit circle.** $\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No}) = \{u \in \mathbf{SC} : u\bar{u} = 1\}$, with $\mathbb{T}(\mathbb{R})$ its ordinary complex counterpart. The sources also write $\mathbb{U}$ and $S^1(\mathbb{C})$ for these; we do not.
- **Finite phase.** $\text{cis } \theta = \cos \theta + i \sin \theta$ for finite real θ . The sources also write $E(\theta)$ and $\Phi(\theta)$ for this map; the letter E is reserved below for the strip exponential of [theorem 10.1](#).
- **Finite and infinitesimal elements.** $\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}, \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}} \subset \mathbf{No}$ and $\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{C}}, \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{C}} \subset \mathbf{SC}$. The sources also write $\mathcal{O}, \mathfrak{m}$ without subscripts.
- **Standard part.** The map st to $\mathbb{C}$ on finite elements, and the topology it induces, are called the *standard part* and the *standard-part topology*. The source manuscripts variously call this map or topology the reduction, the shadow and the residue; those three words are not used again. The genuinely different *fine* topology — generated by all balls of positive surreal radius — keeps its own name throughout.
- **Triangles.** Vertices A, B, C ; opposite sides $a = |B - C|$, $b = |C - A|$, $c = |A - B|$; interior angles $\alpha, \beta, \gamma \in (0, \pi)$; area Δ , circumradius R , inradius r , semiperimeter s . One source uses the letters A, B, C for both vertices and angles; we do not.
- **Angle defect and angular metric.** $d(\alpha) = \min\{\alpha, \pi - \alpha\}$ is the *defect* of an interior angle (a source writes e_A , another d_α). $\angle(u, v) \in [0, \pi]$ is the *angular metric* on $\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$ (a source writes d_θ).
- **Small parameters.** h denotes a generic nonzero infinitesimal increment or angle; ε a generic positive infinitesimal; τ the ramification parameter of a cosine extremum or a near tangency, as in $\arccos(1 - \tau)$; δ the side gap $b + c - a$ of [theorem 8.4](#). The sources overload δ across all four roles.

- **Asymptotics.** $a \prec b$ means $a/b \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbf{SC}}$; $a \sim b$ means $a/b - 1 \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbf{SC}}$. Both are exact algebraic relations between surreal numbers, never limits along a sequence. For a fixed nonzero infinitesimal h , $O(h^m)$ denotes a remainder whose quotient by h^m is finite; it is an algebraic size statement, not a statement about an ordinary integer tending to infinity.
- **Ordinary finiteness.** Every integer n , polynomial degree N or n , Fourier grid size M , and polygon size in this article is an *ordinary* finite integer unless the contrary is said explicitly. “Finite coefficients” of a trigonometric polynomial means instead that each Laurent coefficient lies in $\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{C}}$, i.e. is finite *in magnitude*; this second sense is used only in [theorem 9.7](#) and is flagged there.

1.3 Conventions: which coefficient ring each statement lives over

Several distinct rings of Hahn-analytic data circulate in this subject under nearly identical notation, and theorems about one of them are not theorems about another. Fix a set-sized divisible ordered additive subgroup $\Gamma \subset \mathbf{No}$ and write $t^\gamma = \omega^{-\gamma}$, so that $F_\Gamma = \mathbb{R}((t^\Gamma))$ is real closed and $K_\Gamma = \mathbb{C}((t^\Gamma))$ is algebraically closed [10, 7]. In one variable z the four rings are:

- (R1) **the fixed-domain ring** $\mathcal{O}(J)((t^\Gamma))$. A datum is $F = \sum_{\gamma \in S} f_\gamma t^\gamma$ with $S \subset \Gamma$ one well-ordered support and *every* coefficient f_γ analytic on one fixed ordinary domain J . In the real case J is an ordinary real interval or neighbourhood; this is also the *uniform-support* ring used for integration along an ordinary parameter interval.
- (R2) **the common-domain germ ring.** The same, with J allowed to shrink: the coefficients are germs at a point admitting *some* common domain of definition.
- (R3) **the radius-free ring** $\mathbb{C}\{z\}((t^\Gamma))$. Each f_γ is an individually convergent germ, with *no* common radius of convergence required.
- (R4) **the formal ring** $\mathbb{C}[[z]]((t^\Gamma))$. Each f_γ is a formal power series.

The inclusions (R1) $\subset$ (R2) $\subset$ (R3) $\subset$ (R4) are all strict. *Every coherence statement in this article names its ring.* Concretely: the obstruction theorems [theorem 17.7](#) and [theorem 17.8](#) are stated over (R1)–(R2) and over nothing else; the coefficientwise integral of [section 16](#) uses the uniform-support avatar of (R1) along an ordinary real interval; and no theorem below is stated over the radius-free ring (R3) or the formal ring (R4), which appear here only to locate the two that are used. No statement is transferred from one of these rings to another anywhere in this article.

By contrast, the *scalar* Taylor lift of [equation \(2.5\)](#), which carries the bulk of the article, is not a statement about any of these rings: it evaluates one ordinary germ at one finite surreal point, and the only hypothesis is that the germ be defined near the standard part of that point.

1.4 The workspace, and what it does not authorize

Every normal-form support, coefficient family and recursion used here is a *set*; $\mathbf{No}$ is a proper class and a class theory such as NBG may be used. Any finite tuple of surcomplex numbers lies in some set-sized divisible workspace K_Γ , obtained as the divisible hull of the group generated by its normal-form supports, and any fixed calculation may be placed there. This enlargement rule never authorizes a proper-class sum or a proper-class polynomial ring, and no sum below has a proper-class index set. Workspace enlargement does not change any formula: the coefficients and strong sums have the same normal forms after embedding into a larger Hahn field, and the algebraic

factorization and root statements are interpreted in the full field **SC**, so none of them is tied to a rank-one subfield.

2 Surreal scalars and support-controlled evaluation

2.1 Norm, valuation, and standard part

Conjugation, norm, inner product and oriented determinant are

$$\overline{x + iy} = x - iy, \quad |z| = \sqrt{z\bar{z}}, \quad (2.1)$$

$$\langle z, w \rangle = \operatorname{Re}(\bar{z}w), \quad [z, w] = \operatorname{Im}(\bar{z}w). \quad (2.2)$$

Expanding coordinates gives the Gram identity

$$\langle z, w \rangle^2 + [z, w]^2 = |z|^2 |w|^2, \quad (2.3)$$

whence $|zw| = |z||w|$, the Cauchy–Schwarz inequality $|\langle z, w \rangle| \leq |z||w|$, and the triangle inequality $|z + w| \leq |z| + |w|$. Equality in the last, for nonzero z, w , holds exactly when w/z is a positive element of **No**; squaring the equality gives $\langle z, w \rangle = |z||w|$, which selects the nonnegative proportionality factor. Here and below, “real” as a coordinate condition means belonging to **No**, while “ordinary real” means belonging to $\mathbb{R}$.

For a nonzero normal form $a = \sum_{\gamma \in S} a_\gamma t^\gamma$ with S well ordered, put

$$v(a) = \min S, \quad \operatorname{lc}(a) = a_{v(a)}, \quad v(0) = +\infty.$$

Then $v(ab) = v(a) + v(b)$, $v(a + b) \geq \min(v(a), v(b))$, and $v(|a|) = v(a)$. The value group is not assumed Archimedean; every comparison of valuations below uses only its ordered-group operations. Write

$$\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}} = \{x : |x| < n \text{ for some } n \in \mathbb{N}_{>0}\}, \quad \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}} = \{x : |x| < 1/n \text{ for every } n \in \mathbb{N}_{>0}\},$$

and $\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{C}} = \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}} + i\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}$, $\mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{C}} = \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}} + i\mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$. Every finite element decomposes uniquely as

$$z = c + \eta, \quad c = \operatorname{st}(z) \in \mathbb{C}, \quad \eta \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{C}}, \quad (2.4)$$

with $c \in \mathbb{R}$ for real elements. Standard part is a ring homomorphism on finite elements, and equals the coefficient at exponent zero. A finite element is *appreciable* when its standard part is nonzero; a finite nonzero element has valuation zero exactly when it is appreciable.

2.2 Strong summability and the support lemma

Definition 2.1 (Strong summability). A set-indexed Hahn family $(A_j)_{j \in J}$ is *strongly summable* when the union of its normal-form supports is well ordered *and* every exponent occurs in the supports of only finitely many members. Its sum is formed by finite addition at each exponent.

The two clauses are independent, and both are needed.

Lemma 2.2 (Hahn–Neumann support calculus). *If S, T are well-ordered subsets of an ordered abelian group, then $S + T$ is well ordered and each exponent has only finitely many representations $s + t$. If $T \subset \Gamma_{>0}$ is well ordered, the monoid*

$$T^* = \{\tau_1 + \cdots + \tau_k : k \geq 0, \tau_j \in T\}$$

is well ordered, and each exponent has only finitely many representations as a finite word in T , including only finitely many possible word lengths. In particular, for finitely many infinitesimals $\eta_1, \dots, \eta_d \in \mathbf{m}_{\mathbb{C}}$ and arbitrary ordinary complex coefficients c_α , the family

$$\sum_{\alpha \in \mathbb{N}^d} c_\alpha \eta_1^{\alpha_1} \cdots \eta_d^{\alpha_d}$$

is strongly summable. Products and formal substitutions with zero constant term may be regrouped coefficientwise, and $S + T^*$ is a support certificate for the result.

Proof. The first assertion follows by extracting a nondecreasing subsequence in one coordinate: either a decreasing sequence of sums, or infinitely many representations of one sum, would force the other coordinate to decrease. The positive-monoid assertion is Neumann’s lemma [9]. One convenient proof uses the well-quasi-ordering of finite words in a well-ordered alphabet under subsequence embedding with coordinatewise increase: such an embedding cannot decrease a sum of positive letters, and equality forces identical letters and identical length. This excludes both descending sums and infinitely many distinct nondecreasing words of a fixed sum, and each word has only finitely many permutations. Applying this to the union of the positive supports of the η_j gives the last assertions. $\square$

Three negative companions to [theorem 2.2](#) are load-bearing and are stated here once, because every proof below tacitly relies on them.

Remark 2.3 (What strong summability is not). (i) *A strong sum is not a valuation limit.* With $\Gamma = \mathbb{Q} + \mathbb{Q}\omega$, the strong sum of t^n over $n \geq 0$ is $(1 - t)^{-1}$, but the tails never reach valuation ω . No argument of the form “the valuation improves by a fixed positive amount at each iteration” justifies any construction in this article.

(ii) *“Finitely many dependencies at a given exponent” is not “finitely many exponents below it”.* The latter already fails below ω in $\mathbb{Q} + \mathbb{Q}\omega$. The distinction is exactly what makes finite-parameter replacement in the proofs of [theorems 9.9](#) and [12.1](#) legitimate.

(iii) *Well-ordering cannot be weakened to positivity:* the set $\{1/n : n \geq 1\}$ is positive and not well ordered. The lemma applies even when the value group has arbitrary rank: with $0 < \lambda \ll \mu$ one may have $n\lambda < \mu$ for every ordinary n while $\sum_{n \geq 0} t^{n\lambda}$ remains a perfectly valid Hahn series whose partial sums converge in no relevant sense.

Proposition 2.4 (Degeneracy of fine convergence). *In the fine topology — generated by all balls $|z - a| < \rho$ with ρ a positive surreal — every set-sized subset of $\mathbf{SC}$ is closed and discrete. A net with a set-sized directed index set which converges in that topology is eventually equal to its limit. In particular a nonconstant ordinary real-parameter path cannot be fine-continuous on a connected real interval.*

Proof. For a set $A \subseteq \mathbf{SC}$ and a point p , the cut $\{0 \mid \{|p - a| : a \in A, a \neq p\}\}$ is a positive surreal smaller than every nonzero distance from p to A ; its ball meets A in at most $\{p\}$. This proves closedness and discreteness. For a convergent net, a positive lower bound for all its nonzero distances from the alleged limit shows that eventually entering the corresponding ball forces eventual equality. The image of an ordinary real interval is a set, hence discrete; a continuous image of a connected space is connected, hence a singleton. $\square$

Thus sequence limits are rejected as a definition device once and for all. For example the strong series $\sum_{n \geq 0} \omega^{-n}$ exists, while its finite partial sums do not converge to it. This proposition is used

again in [theorem 16.2](#) and in [section 16](#), where it forces the arc-length functional to be *defined* coefficientwise rather than obtained as a limit of inscribed polygons.

2.3 Lifting ordinary analytic germs

For an ordinary real-analytic f near $r \in \mathbb{R}$ define

$$f^\sharp(r + \varepsilon) = \sum_{n \geq 0} \frac{f^{(n)}(r)}{n!} \varepsilon^n, \quad \varepsilon \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}, \quad (2.5)$$

and identically for ordinary holomorphic germs and complex infinitesimals. The ordinary centre is fixed by the standard part, so the definition is unambiguous: *the ordinary value $f(r)$ is taken first in ordinary analysis, and only the infinitesimal correction is summed*. This is the restricted-analytic evaluation of [1, 7]. Formal identities among germs lift to exact identities, because both sides have identical Taylor coefficients and [theorem 2.2](#) permits the substitutions.

Proposition 2.5 (Local calculus and one-variable sign lifting). *Taylor lifting preserves sums, products, composition where defined, and differentiation, and it is the unique extension specified by the Taylor rule [equation \(2.5\)](#). If an ordinary analytic g is nonnegative on an ordinary closed interval $[a, b]$ and analytic on a neighbourhood of it, then $g^\sharp(x) \geq 0$ for every surreal $x \in [a, b]$, including points infinitesimally close to an endpoint.*

Proof. The algebraic and compositional statements are formal Taylor identities justified by [theorem 2.2](#). Re-expansion at x gives $f^\sharp(x + h) = f^\sharp(x) + (f')^\sharp(x)h + h^2 R_x(h)$ for infinitesimal h , with $R_x(h)$ finite on a sufficiently small neighbourhood, either from the convergent ordinary germ before substitution or directly from its Taylor coefficients and their standard parts. The difference quotient therefore tends to $(f')^\sharp(x)$ in the fine ε - δ sense: for any positive surreal tolerance, choose h smaller than both an infinitesimal radius and that tolerance divided by a fixed real bound for R_x .

For the sign assertion write $x = r + \varepsilon$ with $r \in [a, b]$. If $g(r) > 0$ the standard part decides. If $g(r) = 0$ and the germ is not zero, factor it as $(X - r)^m u(X)$ with $u(r) \neq 0$; at an interior zero nonnegativity forces even m and $u(r) > 0$, and at an endpoint the leading term has the correct sign on the side allowed by $x \in [a, b]$. Substitution preserves these signs; a zero germ causes no difficulty. $\square$

The uniqueness assertion is deliberately about the *Taylor rule*, not about arbitrary functions satisfying the same differential equation in the fine topology. Moreover, *no general transfer of arbitrary infinite families of inequalities is asserted*: in particular, coefficients that are themselves infinitesimal are not automatically covered by an ordinary real-coefficient sign argument. [Theorem 13.6](#) makes that distinction concrete.

Lemma 2.6 (Leading-term test for a lifted germ). *Suppose f has an ordinary zero of order m at c , with $a = f^{(m)}(c)/m! \neq 0$. Then for every nonzero infinitesimal η ,*

$$f^\sharp(c + \eta) = a\eta^m(1 + \xi), \quad \xi \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{SC}}.$$

Hence $v(f^\sharp(c + \eta)) = m v(\eta)$ and $\text{lc}(f^\sharp(c + \eta)) = \text{lc}(a\eta^m)$.

Proof. Factor the ordinary germ as $f(c + X) = aX^m(1 + Xg(X))$; the evaluated series $\eta g^\sharp(\eta)$ has strictly positive support by [theorem 2.2](#). $\square$

The two mechanisms used for every inequality below are exactly these: a strict ordinary inequality with a nonzero ordinary margin survives by taking standard parts, and an ordinary equality case is resolved by the first nonzero Taylor coefficient.

Finally, a disambiguation that is needed in every later section: *a derivative in this article is the derivative of a function of a surreal or surcomplex variable*, with limits understood using all positive surreal error tolerances. It is not a derivation on **No** differentiating the monomials t^γ ; the Berarducci–Mantova differential-field structure [16] is important background but is not an input to any argument here.

3 Canonical sine and cosine on finite angles

3.1 Definition without a divergent global series

For $\theta = r + \varepsilon \in \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}$ with $r \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\varepsilon \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$ define

$$\sin \theta = \sin r \sum_{n \geq 0} \frac{(-1)^n \varepsilon^{2n}}{(2n)!} + \cos r \sum_{n \geq 0} \frac{(-1)^n \varepsilon^{2n+1}}{(2n+1)!}, \quad (3.1)$$

$$\cos \theta = \cos r \sum_{n \geq 0} \frac{(-1)^n \varepsilon^{2n}}{(2n)!} - \sin r \sum_{n \geq 0} \frac{(-1)^n \varepsilon^{2n+1}}{(2n+1)!}. \quad (3.2)$$

The ordinary trigonometric functions on the right are evaluated *only* at the ordinary real number r . These are exactly the scalar lifts [equation \(2.5\)](#), and

$$\operatorname{cis} \theta = \cos \theta + i \sin \theta = e^{ir} \sum_{n \geq 0} \frac{(i\varepsilon)^n}{n!}. \quad (3.3)$$

Unless an extension is explicitly named, lowercase sine, cosine and tangent below have finite surreal real arguments.

Theorem 3.1 (Elementary trigonometry on finite surreal angles). *For $\alpha, \beta \in \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}$,*

$$\cos^2 \alpha + \sin^2 \alpha = 1, \quad (3.4)$$

$$\sin(\alpha + \beta) = \sin \alpha \cos \beta + \cos \alpha \sin \beta, \quad (3.5)$$

$$\cos(\alpha + \beta) = \cos \alpha \cos \beta - \sin \alpha \sin \beta, \quad (3.6)$$

$$\operatorname{cis}(\alpha + \beta) = \operatorname{cis} \alpha \operatorname{cis} \beta. \quad (3.7)$$

Sine is odd, cosine even, both have period 2π , and $(\sin)' = \cos$, $(\cos)' = -\sin$, $(\operatorname{cis})' = i \operatorname{cis}$. For every ordinary integer n ,

$$(\operatorname{cis} \alpha)^n = \operatorname{cis}(n\alpha). \quad (3.8)$$

In particular the usual double-angle, half-angle, sum-to-product and product-to-sum identities hold, with every quotient restricted to a nonzero denominator.

Proof. Write $\alpha = r + \varepsilon$, $\beta = s + \eta$. The ordinary addition identities at r, s and the formal identities for the power series in ε, η give [equation \(3.7\)](#); all reorganizations are justified by [theorem 2.2](#). Conjugating [equation \(3.3\)](#) gives $\operatorname{cis}(-\alpha) = \overline{\operatorname{cis} \alpha}$, so the modulus is one. The remaining identities follow by substitution, conjugation, differentiation and ordinary finite induction; negative integer powers use $\overline{\operatorname{cis} \alpha} = (\operatorname{cis} \alpha)^{-1}$. $\square$

For reference, several consequences are

$$\tan(\alpha + \beta) = \frac{\tan \alpha + \tan \beta}{1 - \tan \alpha \tan \beta}, \quad \sin \alpha + \sin \beta = 2 \sin \frac{\alpha + \beta}{2} \cos \frac{\alpha - \beta}{2}, \quad (3.9)$$

$$\cos \alpha - \cos \beta = -2 \sin \frac{\alpha + \beta}{2} \sin \frac{\alpha - \beta}{2}, \quad 2 \sin \alpha \sin \beta = \cos(\alpha - \beta) - \cos(\alpha + \beta), \quad (3.10)$$

$$\cos(n\alpha) = T_n(\cos \alpha), \quad \sin(n\alpha) = \sin \alpha U_{n-1}(\cos \alpha) \quad (n \geq 1), \quad (3.11)$$

with $T_0 = 1$, $T_1 = X$, $T_{n+1} = 2XT_n - T_{n-1}$ and $U_0 = 1$, $U_1 = 2X$, $U_{n+1} = 2XU_n - U_{n-1}$. The last two follow from the same recurrence, so no new summability issue enters; the index n is an ordinary finite integer. The conventional forms are recorded in [11, §4.21]; the point here is their well-defined evaluation and exact validity in a non-Archimedean field.

3.2 Order, monotonicity, and exact leading orders

Proposition 3.2 (Signs and monotonicity). *Sine is positive on $(0, \pi)$ and negative on $(\pi, 2\pi)$; cosine is strictly decreasing on $[0, \pi]$, and sine is strictly increasing on $[-\pi/2, \pi/2]$. Jordan's inequality*

$$\frac{2x}{\pi} \leq \sin x \leq x \quad (0 \leq x \leq \pi/2) \quad (3.12)$$

holds, and $|\sin x| \leq |x|$ for every finite x . Moreover $0 < \sin x < x < \tan x$ for finite $0 < x < \pi/2$.

Proof. An ordinary standard part strictly between 0 and π decides the positive sign; near 0, $\sin \varepsilon = \varepsilon(1 + \text{infinitesimal})$, and near π , $\sin(\pi - \varepsilon) = \sin \varepsilon$. These cover the remaining points of $(0, \pi)$, and translation by π gives the other sign. For $0 \leq a < b \leq \pi$ the identity $\cos a - \cos b = 2 \sin \frac{a+b}{2} \sin \frac{b-a}{2} > 0$ proves strict decrease, and the analogous sine difference uses a positive cosine of the midpoint on $[-\pi/2, \pi/2]$. The ordinary inequalities in equation (3.12) lift by theorem 2.5; for $|x| \geq 1$ use $|\sin x| \leq 1$. For the last chain, standard parts in $(0, \pi/2)$ have ordinary margins; at positive infinitesimal x the leading terms $x - \sin x = x^3/6 + \dots$ and $\tan x - x = x^3/3 + \dots$ are positive by theorem 2.6; and infinitesimally below $\pi/2$ the tangent is positive infinite. $\square$

This proof does not infer global monotonicity from the sign of a fine derivative. Such an inference would require additional hypotheses on a general surreal function.

Proposition 3.3 (Exact infinitesimal leading orders). *For $0 \neq h \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$,*

$$\sin h = h - \frac{h^3}{6} + \frac{h^5}{120} + O(h^7), \quad 1 - \cos h = \frac{h^2}{2} - \frac{h^4}{24} + O(h^6), \quad (3.13)$$

$$\tan h = h + \frac{h^3}{3} + \frac{2h^5}{15} + O(h^7), \quad (3.14)$$

and, exactly,

$$v(\sin h) = v(\tan h) = v(h), \quad v(1 - \cos h) = 2v(h), \quad (3.15)$$

with $\sin h \sim h$, $\tan h \sim h$ and $1 - \cos h \sim h^2/2$.

Proof. The truncations come from the strongly summable formal series. Dividing the three expressions by h, h^2, h gives finite elements with nonzero standard parts 1, $1/2$, 1, and such units have valuation zero. $\square$

These asymptotic equivalences are statements about *a single arbitrary infinitesimal*. They are strictly stronger than standard-part equalities and do not mean that a sequence of real arguments converges in the fine topology.

3.3 What normalizes the finite pair

Proposition 3.4 (Normalization of the finite trigonometric pair). *Suppose two functions S, C on $\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}$ agree with the ordinary sine and cosine at every ordinary real point, and satisfy, for every $r \in \mathbb{R}$ and every $\varepsilon \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$, the Taylor identities [equation \(3.1\)](#)–[equation \(3.2\)](#) with the ordinary derivatives at r . Then $S = \sin$ and $C = \cos$ on $\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}$. Equivalently, the prescribed ordinary germs together with their strong evaluations determine the pair uniquely.*

Proof. Every $x \in \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}$ has exactly one decomposition $r + \varepsilon$, so the hypothesis reproduces [equation \(3.1\)](#) and [equation \(3.2\)](#) verbatim. $\square$

This normalization is deliberately stronger than a differential equation with one initial value. Fine-local analyticity alone permits unrelated germs on disjoint monads [1], and [theorem 17.4](#) will show that even a global addition law does not determine the infinite-argument values.

4 The full unit circle and the group of angles

4.1 Infinitesimal exponential and logarithm

For $h, \eta \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{C}}$ put

$$\text{Exp}_{\mathfrak{m}}(h) = \sum_{n \geq 0} \frac{h^n}{n!}, \quad \text{Log}_{\mathfrak{m}}(1 + \eta) = \sum_{n \geq 1} \frac{(-1)^{n+1} \eta^n}{n}. \quad (4.1)$$

Formal power-series identities and [theorem 2.2](#) prove that these are mutually inverse bijections between $\mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{C}}$ and $1 + \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{C}}$, that $\text{Exp}_{\mathfrak{m}}(h + k) = \text{Exp}_{\mathfrak{m}}(h) \text{Exp}_{\mathfrak{m}}(k)$, and that the logarithm turns products into sums; both commute with conjugation. In particular

$$v(\text{Log}_{\mathfrak{m}}(1 + \eta)) = v(\eta) \quad (\eta \neq 0), \quad \text{cis } h = \text{Exp}_{\mathfrak{m}}(ih) \quad (h \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}). \quad (4.2)$$

Define

$$\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No}) = \{u \in \mathbf{SC} : u\bar{u} = 1\},$$

whose elements all have finite coordinates even though $\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$ is a proper class, and let $\mathbb{T}(\mathbb{R})$ be the ordinary complex unit circle. For nonzero z, w the *oriented angle* from z to w is, before any radian parameter, the group element

$$u(z, w) = \frac{\bar{z}w}{|z||w|} \in \mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No}), \quad (4.3)$$

whose real and imaginary coordinates are its cosine and sine: $\cos(z, w) = \langle z, w \rangle / (|z||w|)$ and $\sin(z, w) = [z, w] / (|z||w|)$. Changing either vector's length by a positive surreal factor does not change its angle. The *unoriented* angle is the unique $\alpha \in [0, \pi]$ with $\cos \alpha = \langle z, w \rangle / (|z||w|)$ and $\sin \alpha = |[z, w]| / (|z||w|)$; by [equation \(2.3\)](#) this is meaningful even when one vector has infinitesimal length and the other infinite length.

Proposition 4.1 (Algebraic angle addition and rotations). *Angle composition is multiplication: $u(z, w)u(w, q) = u(z, q)$, and if the angle coordinates are (c, s) and (d, t) the composite has coordinates $(cd - st, sd + ct)$. The map $u = c + is \mapsto \begin{pmatrix} c & -s \\ s & c \end{pmatrix}$ identifies $\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$ with $\text{SO}(2, \mathbf{No})$. Multiplication by an element of $\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$ preserves lengths, dot products, determinants and oriented angles; every orientation-preserving $\mathbf{No}$ -linear isometry of $\mathbf{No}^2$ is of this form; every orientation-preserving affine*

similarity is $z \mapsto a + \lambda uz$ with $a \in \mathbf{SC}$, $\lambda \in \mathbf{No}_{>0}$, $u \in \mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$, and the orientation-reversing ones are obtained by composing with conjugation. Finally every nonzero $z \in \mathbf{SC}$ is uniquely $z = \rho u$ with $\rho = |z| \in \mathbf{No}_{>0}$ and $u \in \mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$, and multiplication gives a group isomorphism $\mathbf{No}_{>0} \times \mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No}) \rightarrow \mathbf{SC}^\times$.

Proof. The angle identity follows by cancellation, and multiplying $c + is$ by $d + it$ gives the displayed coordinates. The indicated matrix preserves the dot product and has determinant $c^2 + s^2 = 1$; conversely the first column of an orthogonal determinant-one matrix is some (c, s) of norm one, and orthogonality fixes the second column as $(-s, c)$. For a unit q one has $\bar{q}zqw = \bar{z}w$, which gives the preservation statements. Dividing a similarity's linear part by its positive scale factor reduces it to the isometry case. For the polar statement take $\rho = |z|$ and $u = z/|z|$; taking norms proves uniqueness and multiplicativity. $\square$

Thus addition, double-angle and finite multiple-angle identities already have an algebraic meaning over any real closed field. Surreal-specific analysis enters only when these unit directions are identified with numerical radians, which is the content of the next theorem.

4.2 The finite phase theorem

Theorem 4.2 (Polar decomposition and the angle group). *The map $\text{cis} : (\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}, +) \rightarrow (\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No}), \cdot)$ is surjective with kernel exactly $2\pi\mathbb{Z}$, so that*

$$\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}/2\pi\mathbb{Z} \cong \mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No}), \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{SC}^\times \cong \mathbf{No}_{>0} \times (\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}/2\pi\mathbb{Z}). \quad (4.4)$$

More precisely, there is a canonical group isomorphism

$$\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No}) \longrightarrow \mathbb{T}(\mathbb{R}) \times (\mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}, +), \quad u \longmapsto (u_0, -i \text{Log}_{\mathfrak{m}}(u/u_0)), \quad u_0 = \text{st}(u), \quad (4.5)$$

with inverse $(u_0, \delta) \mapsto u_0 \text{Exp}_{\mathfrak{m}}(i\delta)$. Consequently every $z \neq 0$ has a unique modulus $\rho = |z| > 0$ and a unique angle class $[\theta] \in \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}/2\pi\mathbb{Z}$ with $z = \rho \text{cis } \theta$; the modulus may be infinitesimal, finite or infinite, while the angle is always finite.

Proof. Taking standard parts in $u\bar{u} = 1$ gives $u_0 \in \mathbb{T}(\mathbb{R})$. Put $q = u/u_0 \in 1 + \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{C}}$; since $\bar{q} = q^{-1}$,

$$\overline{\text{Log}_{\mathfrak{m}} q} = \text{Log}_{\mathfrak{m}} \bar{q} = \text{Log}_{\mathfrak{m}}(q^{-1}) = -\text{Log}_{\mathfrak{m}} q,$$

so $\text{Log}_{\mathfrak{m}} q = i\delta$ for a unique $\delta \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$. Choosing any ordinary argument θ_0 of u_0 gives $u = u_0 \text{Exp}_{\mathfrak{m}}(i\delta) = \text{cis}(\theta_0 + \delta)$, proving surjectivity. The standard-part map and the logarithmic group law prove that [equation \(4.5\)](#) is a homomorphism with the stated inverse. If $\text{cis}(r + \varepsilon) = 1$, the standard part gives $r \in 2\pi\mathbb{Z}$, hence $\text{Exp}_{\mathfrak{m}}(i\varepsilon) = 1$, and logarithmic inversion gives $\varepsilon = 0$. Applying the circle result to $u = z/|z|$ and [theorem 4.1](#) gives the polar statement. $\square$

The infinitesimal component in [equation \(4.5\)](#) is independent of an ordinary argument branch. A numerical representative of an angle class, however, requires a cut.

Corollary 4.3 (Representatives, roots, and torsion). *Every direction has exactly one representative in $[0, 2\pi)$ and exactly one in $(-\pi, \pi]$, obtained by adding or subtracting an ordinary multiple of 2π and then checking the actual surreal inequalities; near the endpoints the infinitesimal correction matters, so that the representative of $-\varepsilon$ with $\varepsilon > 0$ infinitesimal is $2\pi - \varepsilon$ and not an ordinary angle. The upper open semicircle corresponds exactly to $(0, \pi)$. For $u = \text{cis } \theta$ and an ordinary $n \geq 1$,*

the equation $v^n = u$ has exactly the n distinct solutions $\text{cis}((\theta + 2\pi k)/n)$, $0 \leq k < n$; in particular the n th roots of unity in $\mathbf{SC}$ are exactly the ordinary complex roots of unity, and $\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$ has no nontrivial infinitesimal torsion. For $w = \rho \text{cis } \theta \neq 0$ the n th roots are $\rho^{1/n} \text{cis}((\theta + 2\pi k)/n)$, and for $n \geq 3$ a regular n -gon of radius $\rho \in \mathbf{No}_{>0}$ has side length $2\rho \sin(\pi/n)$.

Proof. A finite number has an ordinary real standard part, so subtracting an ordinary multiple of 2π , with at most one endpoint adjustment, lands in either half-open interval; the kernel in [theorem 4.2](#) gives uniqueness. On $(0, \pi)$ sine is positive by [theorem 3.2](#), including the infinitesimal endpoint neighbourhoods, and parity treats the lower semicircle. The listed roots are distinct by the kernel and exhaust the roots of $X^n - u$ by degree. In the splitting [equation \(4.5\)](#), $n\delta = 0$ forces $\delta = 0$. The chord formula follows from [equation \(2.3\)](#) or the cosine double-angle identity. $\square$

Remark 4.4 (Two branch conventions, kept apart). A representative constrained to have *actual value* in $(-\pi, \pi]$ has a branch jump at the negative real axis, including across infinitesimal perturbations: an ordinary principal argument of $\text{st}(u)$ plus its infinitesimal correction need not already lie in that interval — it may be $\pi + \varepsilon$ with $\varepsilon > 0$ — and the representative then subtracts 2π . One may instead fix an argument β of the *standard* direction and retain its infinitesimal correction without reducing again,

$$\arg_\beta z = \beta - i \text{Log}_m \left(\frac{z/|z|}{\text{st}(z/|z|)} \right), \quad (4.6)$$

which is fine-locally analytic but may lie infinitesimally outside $(-\pi, \pi]$. The global logarithm of [\[1\]](#) uses the second, standard-part-pinned convention; the geometric representative convention of [theorem 4.3](#) is the first. They give the same direction and must not be identified as the same single-valued argument function. *Angle classes avoid the ambiguity entirely*, and are what all geometric theorems below use. When h/z is infinitesimal the unwrapped branch gives the local differential

$$\arg_\beta(z + h) - \arg_\beta z = \text{Im} \text{Log}_m(1 + h/z), \quad (4.7)$$

so that $d \arg z = \text{Im}(dz/z)$ and $d \log |z| = \text{Re}(dz/z)$.

4.3 Rational coordinates and angle division

Theorem 4.5 (Projective half-angle parametrization of every surreal direction). *The map*

$$C(t) = \frac{1+it}{1-it} = \frac{1-t^2}{1+t^2} + i \frac{2t}{1+t^2}, \quad t \in \mathbf{No}, \quad C(\infty) = -1, \quad (4.8)$$

is a bijection $\mathbb{P}^1(\mathbf{No}) \rightarrow \mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$; here ∞ is the projective point, not an infinitely large surreal. Restricted to $\mathbf{No}$ it is a bijection onto $\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No}) \setminus \{-1\}$, with inverse $t = \text{Im } u / (1 + \text{Re } u)$. If $u = \text{cis } \theta \neq -1$ then $t = \tan(\theta/2)$ for the representative $-\pi < \theta < \pi$. In homogeneous coordinates $t = [p : q]$, multiplication of directions is

$$[p : q] \oplus [r : s] = [ps + qr : qs - pr], \quad (4.9)$$

which in affine coordinates is $(t + u)/(1 - tu)$ whenever the denominator is nonzero. Infinite t are allowed and describe directions infinitesimally close to -1 .

Proof. The displayed rational expression has norm one and cannot equal -1 , because $1 + \text{Re } C(t) = 2/(1 + t^2) > 0$. Conversely if $u = c + is$ has $c^2 + s^2 = 1$ and $c \neq -1$ then $1 + c > 0$ and substituting $t = s/(1 + c)$ recovers $c + is$; the only omitted direction is -1 , supplied by the projective point.

The product formula follows by multiplying $(q + ip)/(q - ip)$ and $(s + ir)/(s - ir)$, and its two homogeneous outputs cannot both vanish because $(ps + qr)^2 + (qs - pr)^2 = (p^2 + q^2)(r^2 + s^2) > 0$. The half-angle identity is [theorem 3.1](#) on the chosen interval; the exceptional angle is handled projectively. $\square$

The homogeneous rule resolves the cases involving $t = \infty$: in particular $\infty \oplus \infty = 0$, corresponding to two half-turns, and one must not evaluate the affine formula by informal arithmetic with a symbol ∞ . This rational coordinate is valid for infinite t : $t = \omega$ gives a direction infinitesimally close to -1 , not an unspecified direction associated with ω radians. Algebraic half-slope coordinates have published predecessors in vector and rational trigonometry [[13](#), [14](#)]; their use here avoids unnecessary transcendental evaluation, and [theorem 13.4](#) and [theorem 9.7](#) both run through this chart.

5 Inverse functions and the angular metric

5.1 Inverse trigonometry on its full natural surreal domains

Theorem 5.1 (Inverse tangent, sine, and cosine). *There are unique inverse functions*

$$\arctan : \mathbf{No} \rightarrow (-\pi/2, \pi/2), \quad \arcsin : [-1, 1] \rightarrow [-\pi/2, \pi/2], \quad \arccos : [-1, 1] \rightarrow [0, \pi],$$

with the usual inverse identities; all values are finite surreal angles, and inverse tangent is an increasing bijection defined at every surreal slope, infinite ones included. They satisfy

$$\cos(\arctan t) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1+t^2}}, \quad \sin(\arctan t) = \frac{t}{\sqrt{1+t^2}}, \quad (5.1)$$

$$\arcsin x = 2 \arctan \frac{x}{1 + \sqrt{1-x^2}}, \quad \arccos t = \frac{\pi}{2} - \arcsin t, \quad (5.2)$$

and at every point of their open domains — including infinite t for inverse tangent and points infinitesimally close to ± 1 for the other two —

$$(\arctan)'(t) = \frac{1}{1+t^2}, \quad (\arcsin)'(t) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1-t^2}}, \quad (\arccos)'(t) = -\frac{1}{\sqrt{1-t^2}}. \quad (5.3)$$

Proof. The unit direction $(1 + it)/\sqrt{1+t^2}$ has positive real part, so [theorem 4.2](#) and the sign rules of [theorem 3.2](#) give a unique angle in $(-\pi/2, \pi/2)$; this defines inverse tangent and proves its two coordinate formulas. If $x < y$ the determinant of $(1, x)$ and $(1, y)$ is $y - x > 0$, so the angle difference has positive sine and, both angles lying in an interval of length π , is positive: inverse tangent is increasing. Similarly the directions $\sqrt{1-t^2} + it$ and $t + i\sqrt{1-t^2}$ give inverse sine and inverse cosine on their stated ranges, whose uniqueness follows from strict monotonicity. The half-angle identity proves the inverse-sine formula, whose denominator is positive even at $x = \pm 1$.

For the derivatives: locally, square roots of nonzero positive elements have their binomial expansions after division by the base value, and a local argument difference is the imaginary part of the infinitesimal logarithm of a direction ratio ([equation \(4.7\)](#)). These give fine-local analytic expansions at every point under discussion, and differentiating the inverse identities gives [equation \(5.3\)](#); the relevant cosine or sine is nonzero. At an infinite inverse-tangent input the same computation is valid after taking increments small relative to $1 + it$, and no finite bound on t is used. $\square$

For positive infinite t , hence infinitesimal $1/t$,

$$\arctan t = \frac{\pi}{2} - \arctan(1/t) = \frac{\pi}{2} - \frac{1}{t} + \frac{1}{3t^3} - \frac{1}{5t^5} + O(t^{-7}), \quad (5.4)$$

and for negative t one uses oddness; an infinite slope corresponds to a finite angle infinitesimally short of a right angle. For example

$$\text{Arg}(1 + i\omega) = \frac{\pi}{2} - \omega^{-1} + \frac{\omega^{-3}}{3} - \frac{\omega^{-5}}{5} + \cdots,$$

a finite value describing an infinite slope without evaluating sine or cosine at an infinite angular argument. For infinitesimal h the strong identities

$$\arctan h = h - \frac{h^3}{3} + \frac{h^5}{5} - \cdots, \quad \arcsin h = h + \frac{h^3}{6} + \frac{3h^5}{40} + \cdots \quad (5.5)$$

hold, with $(\tan x)' = 1 + \tan^2 x$ wherever cosine is nonzero.

Remark 5.2 (An endpoint at which no surreal derivative exists). The endpoint derivative of inverse sine does not exist as a surreal-valued derivative: its difference quotient grows beyond every fixed surreal bound as the increment becomes sufficiently small. Allowing infinitely large elements as candidate derivative values does not repair this, because there is always a still smaller increment. This is a genuine failure, not an artefact of the choice of tolerance class, and it is the analytic shadow of the square-root ramification of [theorem 5.3](#).

Proposition 5.3 (Endpoint ramification of inverse cosine). *For $0 < \tau \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$,*

$$\begin{aligned} \arccos(1 - \tau) &= 2 \arcsin \sqrt{\tau/2} \\ &= \sqrt{2\tau} \sum_{n \geq 0} \frac{\binom{2n}{n}}{8^n(2n+1)} \tau^n \\ &= \sqrt{2\tau} \left(1 + \frac{\tau}{12} + \frac{3\tau^2}{160} + \frac{5\tau^3}{896} + O(\tau^4) \right), \end{aligned} \quad (5.6)$$

the series being strongly summable after adjoining $\sqrt{\tau}$, and

$$v(\arccos(1 - \tau)) = \frac{1}{2}v(\tau). \quad (5.7)$$

Proof. The double-angle identity gives $\cos(2 \arcsin \sqrt{\tau/2}) = 1 - \tau$; the angle is a positive infinitesimal, so inverse uniqueness gives the first equality. Substituting the ordinary formal inverse-sine series gives the rest, every remaining parenthesized factor having standard part one. $\square$

Inverse sine and inverse tangent are valuation-preserving at zero, whereas inverse cosine at 1 is a square-root branch. This single distinction governs every degeneration result in [section 8](#) and [section 9](#).

5.2 Chord distance and infinitesimal angular accuracy

For $u, v \in \mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$ let $\angle(u, v) \in [0, \pi]$ be the least absolute representative of their angle difference, equivalently $\angle(u, v) = \arccos \text{Re}(\bar{u}v)$. This is a metric: choose shortest representatives for two successive differences, add them and reduce modulo 2π ; reduction cannot increase the least absolute value, which is the triangle inequality.

Theorem 5.4 (Angular and chordal comparison). *For $u, v \in \mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$, with $d = \angle(u, v)$,*

$$|u - v| = 2 \sin(d/2), \quad |u - v| \leq d \leq \frac{\pi}{2} |u - v|, \quad (5.8)$$

and for $u \neq v$,

$$v(\angle(u, v)) = v(u - v) \quad \text{exactly.} \quad (5.9)$$

If $\text{st}(u) = \text{st}(v)$, their unique infinitesimal oriented angle difference is

$$\delta = -i \text{Log}_{\mathbf{m}}(v/u), \quad v(\delta) = v(v - u), \quad \angle(u, v) = |\delta|. \quad (5.10)$$

Moreover, for infinitesimal d ,

$$|u - v| = d \left(1 - \frac{d^2}{24} + \frac{d^4}{1920} - \cdots \right), \quad 1 - \cos d = \frac{d^2}{2} \left(1 - \frac{d^2}{12} + \frac{d^4}{360} - \cdots \right). \quad (5.11)$$

Proof. Expanding $|u - v|^2 = 2 - 2 \text{Re}(\bar{u}v)$ and using the half-angle identity proves the first equality in [equation \(5.8\)](#); Jordan's inequality [equation \(3.12\)](#) proves both bounds. Bounding a positive quantity above and below by nonzero ordinary real multiples of another forces [equation \(5.9\)](#). Finally $v/u \in 1 + \mathbf{m}_{\mathbb{C}}$, and [equation \(4.2\)](#) gives [equation \(5.10\)](#). The series come from substitution into the sine and cosine Taylor series, the parenthesized factors having standard part one. $\square$

Thus *angular precision is exactly the precision of normalized directions*, not merely comparable to it up to an unspecified non-Archimedean error. Two consequences deserve to be isolated.

Corollary 5.5 (Local valuation isometry of phase and rotation displacement). *If θ, ϕ are finite real angles with $0 \neq \theta - \phi \in \mathbf{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$ then*

$$|\text{cis } \theta - \text{cis } \phi| \sim |\theta - \phi|, \quad v(\text{cis } \theta - \text{cis } \phi) = v(\theta - \phi), \quad \frac{\text{cis } \theta - \text{cis } \phi}{i \text{cis } \phi (\theta - \phi)} = 1 + \text{an infinitesimal.} \quad (5.12)$$

For $z \neq 0$ and a nonzero infinitesimal rotation angle δ ,

$$|\text{cis } \delta z - z| = 2|z| |\sin(\delta/2)| \sim |z| |\delta|. \quad (5.13)$$

Proof. Factor $\text{cis } \theta - \text{cis } \phi = \text{cis } \phi (\text{Exp}_{\mathbf{m}}(i(\theta - \phi)) - 1)$; the first nonzero term of the last factor is $i(\theta - \phi)$, with infinitesimal relative remainder. [Equation \(5.13\)](#) is [equation \(5.8\)](#) followed by [theorem 3.3](#). $\square$

A rotation that is infinitesimal *as an angle* need not be infinitesimal *as a displacement*: rotating a vector of length ω by ω^{-1} moves its endpoint by a distance relatively equivalent to 1, and replacing ω by ω^2 makes that displacement infinite.

Corollary 5.6 (Stability of direction under a relative perturbation). *If $z \neq 0$ and $h/z = \eta \in \mathbf{m}_{\mathbb{C}}$, then the local angle difference between $z + h$ and z is*

$$\Delta\theta = \text{Im Log}_{\mathbf{m}}(1 + \eta) = \text{Im } \eta - \frac{1}{2} \text{Im}(\eta^2) + O(|\eta|^3).$$

In particular $v(\Delta\theta) \geq v(\eta)$ when the difference is nonzero, with equality when the leading coefficient of η has nonzero imaginary part.

Proof. The real part of the logarithm accounts for the change in modulus, its imaginary part for the change in direction; taking imaginary parts cannot lower a Hahn valuation, and a first coefficient with nonzero imaginary part cannot cancel against higher powers. $\square$

Although cosine loses first-order information near zero — $v(1 - \cos d) = 2v(d)$ — the full unit direction does not, because its sine coordinate retains the angular scale. At other angles one should use both coordinates, or a nonsingular tangent chart, rather than infer angular error solely from cosine error.

6 Triangles at arbitrary surreal scales

6.1 Angles and the exact angle sum

Let $A, B, C \in \mathbf{SC}$ be noncollinear, with side lengths $a = |B - C|$, $b = |C - A|$, $c = |A - B|$ and positive area $\Delta = \frac{1}{2}||[B - A, C - A]|$. All four quantities are positive surreals; *no finiteness assumption is made*. Define the interior angle α at A by

$$\cos \alpha = \frac{\langle B - A, C - A \rangle}{bc}, \quad \sin \alpha = \frac{2\Delta}{bc}, \quad 0 < \alpha < \pi, \quad (6.1)$$

and β, γ cyclically. Equation (2.3) places the right-hand sides on the upper unit semicircle, so theorem 4.2 gives existence and uniqueness.

Theorem 6.1 (Euclidean angle sum over the surreal field). *Every noncollinear surcomplex triangle satisfies $\alpha + \beta + \gamma = \pi$.*

Proof. A translation, rotation and possibly a conjugation put $A = 0$, $B = c > 0$, $C = x + iy$ with $y > 0$. Let $\alpha = \text{Arg } C \in (0, \pi)$ and $\varphi = \text{Arg}(C - c) \in (0, \pi)$. Since $\text{Im}(\bar{C}(C - c)) = cy > 0$ we get $\sin(\varphi - \alpha) > 0$; the difference lies in $(-\pi, \pi)$, so $\varphi > \alpha$. The angle at B is $\pi - \varphi$ and the angle at C is $\varphi - \alpha$, both in $(0, \pi)$, and their sum with α is π . $\square$

The proof uses order, angle classes and determinants only. It applies equally to an infinitesimal triangle, an infinite triangle, or a triangle whose sides lie on three different scales, and the conclusion is an equality of finite surreals including their infinitesimal parts, not merely of standard parts. An equivalent argument multiplies the three interior-angle unit elements,

$$\frac{C - A}{B - A} \cdot \frac{A - B}{C - B} \cdot \frac{B - C}{A - C} = -1,$$

so that $\text{cis}(\alpha + \beta + \gamma) = -1$ with the sum in $(0, 3\pi)$; the kernel of theorem 4.2 then forces π . Neither argument uses compactness, a topological hypothesis, or an Archimedean parallel-postulate step.

6.2 Cosine, sine and tangent laws

Theorem 6.2 (Triangle laws). *For every noncollinear surcomplex triangle,*

$$a^2 = b^2 + c^2 - 2bc \cos \alpha, \quad (6.2)$$

$$\Delta = \frac{1}{2}bc \sin \alpha = \frac{1}{2}ca \sin \beta = \frac{1}{2}ab \sin \gamma, \quad (6.3)$$

$$\frac{a}{\sin \alpha} = \frac{b}{\sin \beta} = \frac{c}{\sin \gamma} = \frac{abc}{2\Delta} = 2R, \quad (6.4)$$

$$\frac{a - b}{a + b} = \frac{\tan((\alpha - \beta)/2)}{\tan((\alpha + \beta)/2)}, \quad (6.5)$$

together with the cyclic versions of the cosine law. Here R is the radius of the unique circumcircle, and $R = abc/(4\Delta)$. All denominators are nonzero, and all sides, the area, the circumradius and the inradius may independently be infinite, infinitesimal, or of mutually different scales.

Proof. Expanding $|(C - A) - (B - A)|^2$ gives the cosine law, and [equation \(6.1\)](#) with its cyclic versions gives the area identity and the common sine-law value $abc/(2\Delta)$. For the circumcircle set $A = 0$, $B = c$, $C = x + iy$ with $y > 0$; a centre $O = X + iY$ equidistant from the three vertices satisfies $2cX = c^2$ and $2xX + 2yY = x^2 + y^2 = b^2$, two independent linear equations with the unique solution $X = c/2$, $Y = (b^2 - cx)/(2y)$. A direct expansion using $a^2 = (x - c)^2 + y^2$ gives $|O|^2 = a^2b^2/(4y^2)$, so $R = ab/(2y) = abc/(4\Delta)$; existence is thereby proved without a compactness argument. Finally the sine law converts $(a - b)/(a + b)$ into $(\sin \alpha - \sin \beta)/(\sin \alpha + \sin \beta)$, and the sum-to-product identities give the tangent law; since $0 < \alpha + \beta < \pi$ and $|\alpha - \beta| < \pi$, every cancellation and tangent is legitimate. $\square$

Corollary 6.3 (Right triangles and the full range of slopes). *A triangle is right at C exactly when $c^2 = a^2 + b^2$. In a right triangle with positive legs p, q , the acute angle opposite q is $\arctan(q/p)$, and q/p may be any positive surreal, including an infinite one.*

Proof. The cosine law and the unique zero of cosine on $(0, \pi)$ give the first assertion; the second is the coordinate formula of [theorem 5.1](#). $\square$

6.3 Reconstruction from side or angle data

Theorem 6.4 (Existence, congruence, and similarity). *Positive surreals a, b, c are the side lengths of a noncollinear surcomplex triangle if and only if all three strict triangle inequalities $a < b + c$, $b < c + a$, $c < a + b$ hold; the triangle is then unique up to a Euclidean isometry, the two orientations being interchanged by reflection, and its angles are recovered by the cosine law and arccos. Conversely, positive finite α, β, γ with $\alpha + \beta + \gamma = \pi$ and an arbitrary positive scale $k \in \mathbf{No}$ determine a triangle with*

$$a = k \sin \alpha, \quad b = k \sin \beta, \quad c = k \sin \gamma,$$

unique up to similarity; specifying one positive side fixes k . Triangles with the same three angles have proportional corresponding sides.

Proof. Necessity is the norm triangle inequality with equality excluded by noncollinearity. For sufficiency place $A = 0$, $B = c$ and set

$$x = \frac{b^2 + c^2 - a^2}{2c}, \quad y = \sqrt{b^2 - x^2}.$$

The Heron factorization

$$4c^2(b^2 - x^2) = (a + b + c)(-a + b + c)(a - b + c)(a + b - c) \quad (6.6)$$

shows $y > 0$, so $C = x + iy$ has the required distances; the same equations force x and $|y|$, giving uniqueness. The cosine-law quotient lies strictly between -1 and 1 , so [theorem 5.1](#) recovers each interior angle.

For the converse, note that for $\alpha, \beta > 0$ with $\alpha + \beta < \pi$,

$$\sin \alpha + \sin \beta = 2 \sin \frac{\alpha + \beta}{2} \cos \frac{\alpha - \beta}{2} > 2 \sin \frac{\alpha + \beta}{2} \cos \frac{\alpha + \beta}{2} = \sin(\alpha + \beta),$$

the strict comparison following from cosine monotonicity on $[0, \pi]$ and $|\alpha - \beta| < \alpha + \beta$. Since $\sin \gamma = \sin(\alpha + \beta)$, the proposed sides satisfy the strict triangle inequalities cyclically, so a triangle exists. The identity $\sin^2 \beta + \sin^2 \gamma - \sin^2 \alpha = 2 \sin \beta \sin \gamma \cos \alpha$, which follows from $\alpha = \pi - \beta - \gamma$ and the addition formulas, shows via the cosine law that the constructed angle at A is exactly α , cosine being injective on $[0, \pi]$; similarly at the other vertices. Changing k is a similarity, and the sine law gives proportional sides for equal angles. $\square$

This is the usual side–side–side construction without any Archimedean assumption; side–angle–side is obtained from $C = b \operatorname{cis} \alpha$ with $0 < \alpha < \pi$, and the sine law gives angle–side–angle. *The usual side–side–angle ambiguity remains:* a ray–circle intersection is a quadratic problem and may have zero, one or two admissible solutions, and no additional infinite family of solutions appears merely because the coordinates are surreal. This last point is made quantitative by [theorem 9.1](#).

6.4 Area, half-angles, and the two radii

Put $s = (a + b + c)/2$; the strict triangle inequalities make $s - a$, $s - b$, $s - c$ positive.

Theorem 6.5 (Heron, half-angle, incircle and bisector formulas). *One has*

$$\Delta^2 = s(s - a)(s - b)(s - c), \quad r = \frac{\Delta}{s}, \quad (6.7)$$

$$\sin \frac{\alpha}{2} = \sqrt{\frac{(s - b)(s - c)}{bc}}, \quad \cos \frac{\alpha}{2} = \sqrt{\frac{s(s - a)}{bc}}, \quad (6.8)$$

$$\tan \frac{\alpha}{2} = \sqrt{\frac{(s - b)(s - c)}{s(s - a)}} = \frac{r}{s - a}, \quad (6.9)$$

all square roots being the positive ones. The incentre is

$$I = \frac{aA + bB + cC}{2s}, \quad (6.10)$$

and the internal bisector from A meets BC in the ratio $c : b$ and has length

$$\ell_A = \frac{2bc}{b + c} \cos \frac{\alpha}{2}. \quad (6.11)$$

Proof. With the coordinates of [theorem 6.4](#), $\Delta = cy/2$, so [equation \(6.6\)](#) proves Heron's formula. Substituting the cosine law into $\sin^2(\alpha/2) = (1 - \cos \alpha)/2$ and $\cos^2(\alpha/2) = (1 + \cos \alpha)/2$ gives the half-angle squares; both half-angle functions are positive, which fixes the roots. Their quotient together with Heron's identity gives [equation \(6.9\)](#).

The point [equation \(6.10\)](#) has positive barycentric weights, hence lies strictly inside; its distance to BC , computed as an absolute determinant divided by a , is $\frac{a}{2s} \cdot \frac{2\Delta}{a} = \Delta/s$, and the other two distances agree cyclically. Thus it is the incentre with $r = \Delta/s$. For the bisector, put $A = 0$, $B = c$, $C = b \operatorname{cis} \alpha$; then

$$D = \frac{bB + cC}{b + c} = \frac{bc}{b + c}(1 + \operatorname{cis} \alpha) = \frac{2bc}{b + c} \cos(\alpha/2) \operatorname{cis}(\alpha/2)$$

lies in the interior of BC , has $|B - D|/|D - C| = c/b$, and its direction from A bisects the angle; its modulus is [equation \(6.11\)](#). Projection of an internal-bisector point onto either ray lies at positive distance along that ray, which places each contact point of the incircle on its own side segment. $\square$

Theorem 6.6 (Euler’s incentre–circumcentre identity). *If O is the circumcentre and I the incentre then*

$$|O - I|^2 = R(R - 2r). \quad (6.12)$$

Consequently $R \geq 2r$, with equality exactly for an equilateral triangle.

Proof. Translate O to zero, so $|A| = |B| = |C| = R$. For arbitrary positive weights w_j and vectors Z_j , expansion of the inner products gives the weighted variance identity

$$\left| \frac{\sum_j w_j Z_j}{\sum_j w_j} \right|^2 = \frac{\sum_j w_j |Z_j|^2}{\sum_j w_j} - \frac{\sum_{j < k} w_j w_k |Z_j - Z_k|^2}{(\sum_j w_j)^2}.$$

Apply it with $(w_1, w_2, w_3) = (a, b, c)$; the numerator of the second term is $abc^2 + acb^2 + bca^2 = 2sabc$, so $|I|^2 = R^2 - abc/(2s) = R^2 - 2Rr$. Positivity gives $R \geq 2r$. If equality holds then $I = O$, so every side has the same positive distance r from the centre and therefore length $2\sqrt{R^2 - r^2}$; the triangle is equilateral, and the converse is immediate. $\square$

No limiting or Archimedean argument is hidden in any of these identities.

Corollary 6.7 (A scale-independent area inequality). *Every nondegenerate surcomplex triangle satisfies $\Delta \leq s^2/(3\sqrt{3})$, with equality exactly for an equilateral triangle.*

Proof. The positive quantities $s - a, s - b, s - c$ sum to s . The arithmetic–geometric mean inequality for three terms, proved algebraically over any real closed field, bounds their product by $(s/3)^3$; Heron’s formula converts this into the stated bound, and equality forces the three quantities to coincide. $\square$

7 Bisectors, concurrency, chords, and cyclic quadrilaterals

7.1 The cevian sine ratio and trigonometric Ceva

Theorem 7.1 (Sine ratios for a cevian). *Let D lie strictly inside the side BC of a noncollinear triangle. Then*

$$\frac{|B - D|}{|D - C|} = \frac{c \sin \angle BAD}{b \sin \angle DAC}. \quad (7.1)$$

In particular the internal bisector of α meets BC at the unique point with $|B - D|/|D - C| = c/b$.

Proof. The triangles ABD and ADC share an altitude to the line BC , so their areas are in the ratio $|B - D|/|D - C|$; computing the same areas from the common side AD and the included angles at A gives [equation \(7.1\)](#). For the bisector, equal sines of equal positive half-angles cancel. Uniqueness follows from the strict increase of $\sin x / \sin(\alpha - x)$ on $(0, \alpha)$, which follows in turn from the sine subtraction identity, whose numerator is $\sin \alpha \sin(y - x) > 0$ for $x < y$. $\square$

Theorem 7.2 (Trigonometric Ceva). *Let D, E, F lie strictly inside BC, CA, AB respectively. The lines AD, BE, CF are concurrent if and only if*

$$\frac{\sin \angle BAD}{\sin \angle DAC} \cdot \frac{\sin \angle CBE}{\sin \angle EBA} \cdot \frac{\sin \angle ACF}{\sin \angle FCB} = 1. \quad (7.2)$$

Proof. All six split angles lie in $(0, \pi)$, so their sines are positive. For an interior point with positive barycentric coordinates (p_A, p_B, p_C) , its trace on BC has ratio $|B - D|/|D - C| = p_C/p_B$, the two cyclic ratios being p_A/p_C and p_B/p_A , so their product is one; conversely three prescribed positive ratios with product one determine such positive coordinates, hence a common point. This proves the ordinary ratio form of Ceva by field algebra alone, over **No**, with no topological hypothesis. Substituting equation (7.1) and its cyclic versions, the side factors c/b , a/c , b/a cancel and give equation (7.2). $\square$

The restriction to interior traces avoids directed-length conventions. *A directed Menelaus or Ceva formula can be obtained in the same way after fixing signs, but is not needed for the present development.* Even when a cevian divides a side at an infinitesimal ratio, the sine-ratio criterion remains exact.

7.2 Chords, inscribed angles, and Ptolemy

A circle of centre $O \in \mathbf{SC}$ and radius $R \in \mathbf{No}_{>0}$ is *exactly* $\{O + R \operatorname{cis} \theta : \theta \in \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}\}$: by theorem 4.2 the finite parameter θ already reaches all of its points, including directions differing by arbitrarily small infinitesimals. A circle of enormous radius therefore does *not* require the function $w \mapsto \operatorname{Sin}(Rw)$ to possess one Hahn support over an ordinary angular domain — a point made sharp in theorem 17.7. If $z_j = O + R \operatorname{cis} \theta_j$, the addition identities give the exact factorization

$$z_2 - z_1 = 2iR \operatorname{cis} \frac{\theta_1 + \theta_2}{2} \sin \frac{\theta_2 - \theta_1}{2}, \quad |z_2 - z_1| = 2R \left| \sin \frac{\theta_2 - \theta_1}{2} \right|, \quad (7.3)$$

at every surreal radius.

Proposition 7.3 (Inscribed-angle theorem). *For three distinct points z_1, z_2, z_3 on a circle, the directed angle from $z_1 - z_3$ to $z_2 - z_3$, taken modulo π , is half the directed central angle from $z_1 - O$ to $z_2 - O$, halving sending a central angle modulo 2π to an angle modulo π . In particular points on a common arc subtend a fixed chord under equal interior angles, and an angle subtending a diameter is right.*

Proof. Apply equation (7.3) to both vectors based at z_3 : their quotient has phase $(\theta_2 - \theta_1)/2$ times a nonzero real scalar, and a real sign affects an argument only by π . Choosing the actual interior-angle ranges gives the stated consequences. The argument works equally for infinitesimally separated circle points. $\square$

Theorem 7.4 (Ptolemy inequality and its cyclic equality case). *For arbitrary four surcomplex points,*

$$|z_1 - z_3||z_2 - z_4| \leq |z_1 - z_2||z_3 - z_4| + |z_1 - z_4||z_2 - z_3|, \quad (7.4)$$

and if the four points are distinct and cyclically ordered on a circle, equality holds.

Proof. The algebraic identity

$$(z_1 - z_3)(z_2 - z_4) = (z_1 - z_2)(z_3 - z_4) + (z_1 - z_4)(z_2 - z_3)$$

and the norm triangle inequality prove equation (7.4). For cyclic points choose finite lifts $\theta_1 < \theta_2 < \theta_3 < \theta_4 < \theta_1 + 2\pi$. By equation (7.3) the two products on the right have the same unit phase and strictly positive real multiples of it, since all the half-difference sines involved have the prescribed sign; equality therefore holds in the norm triangle inequality. Equivalently, with $u = (\theta_2 - \theta_1)/2$,

$v = (\theta_3 - \theta_2)/2$, $w = (\theta_4 - \theta_3)/2$, all positive with $u + v + w < \pi$, the equality reduces to the addition-formula identity $\sin(u + v) \sin(v + w) = \sin u \sin w + \sin v \sin(u + v + w)$, whose two sides differ by $\sin u \sin w (\cos^2 v + \sin^2 v - 1) = 0$. This includes the case in which some consecutive arcs are infinitesimal. $\square$

Here *cyclic order* is the order induced by finite representatives around the circle; it is *not* defined by fine-continuous motion of a real parameter, which [theorem 2.4](#) has already shown to be degenerate. This illustrates a general principle: algebraic identities among finitely many vectors often survive unchanged, while any analytic interpretation of the associated angles must still be supplied.

Corollary 7.5 (Finite regular polygons at surreal scale). *For an ordinary integer $n \geq 3$ the regular n -gon with vertices $O + R \operatorname{cis}(2\pi k/n)$ has side $2R \sin(\pi/n)$, perimeter $2nR \sin(\pi/n)$ and area $\frac{n}{2} R^2 \sin(2\pi/n)$, for every positive surreal radius R .*

Proof. The chord formula [equation \(7.3\)](#) gives the side; sum the finitely many equal sides, and the finitely many positively oriented centre triangles, each of determinant area $R^2 \sin(2\pi/n)/2$. $\square$

There is no literal polygon with “ ω vertices” defined by this finite construction, and [theorem 16.2](#) shows that the sequence of these perimeters must not be used to *define* the circumference.

7.3 Quadrance and spread

The *quadrance* of a side is its squared length and the *spread* of two lines is the square of the sine of either angle between them; these are the standard algebraic invariants of rational trigonometry [\[13, 14\]](#). *They forget orientation and distinguish neither an angle from its supplement nor a directed angle from its negative. That loss is useful for rational formulas but must be remembered.* Writing $Q_a = a^2$ and $\sigma_\alpha = \sin^2 \alpha$ cyclically, squaring the sine and cosine laws gives

$$\frac{\sigma_\alpha}{Q_a} = \frac{\sigma_\beta}{Q_b} = \frac{\sigma_\gamma}{Q_c}, \quad (Q_b + Q_c - Q_a)^2 = 4Q_b Q_c (1 - \sigma_\alpha), \quad (7.5)$$

and the triple-spread relation is

$$(\sigma_\alpha + \sigma_\beta + \sigma_\gamma)^2 = 2(\sigma_\alpha^2 + \sigma_\beta^2 + \sigma_\gamma^2) + 4\sigma_\alpha \sigma_\beta \sigma_\gamma. \quad (7.6)$$

To prove the latter, use $\sin \gamma = \sin(\alpha + \beta)$ to obtain $\sigma_\gamma - \sigma_\alpha - \sigma_\beta + 2\sigma_\alpha \sigma_\beta = 2 \sin \alpha \sin \beta \cos \alpha \cos \beta$, square both sides, replace each squared cosine by one minus the corresponding spread, and expand. These formulas require no transcendental operation once the coordinates are known and remain meaningful at every surreal scale.

8 Valuation geometry and extremely thin triangles

8.1 An exact dictionary between sides, angles and area

For an interior angle $\alpha \in (0, \pi)$ its *defect* is $d(\alpha) = \min\{\alpha, \pi - \alpha\} \in (0, \pi/2]$, measuring proximity to either a zero angle or a straight angle. The defect rather than α itself is the right variable: an angle infinitesimally below π has infinitesimal sine but is not infinitesimal as a number.

Theorem 8.1 (Valuation form of the triangle laws). *For a noncollinear surcomplex triangle,*

$$v(\sin \alpha) = v(d(\alpha)), \quad v(a) - v(b) = v(d(\alpha)) - v(d(\beta)), \quad (8.1)$$

$$v(\Delta) = v(b) + v(c) + v(d(\alpha)), \quad 2v(\Delta) = v(s) + v(s-a) + v(s-b) + v(s-c), \quad (8.2)$$

$$v(R) = v(a) + v(b) + v(c) - v(\Delta), \quad v(r) = v(\Delta) - v(s), \quad (8.3)$$

together with the cyclic versions; equivalently $v(a) - v(d(\alpha)) = v(b) - v(d(\beta)) = v(c) - v(d(\gamma)) = v(2R)$. The minimum of $v(a), v(b), v(c)$ is attained at least twice. If α and β are both infinitesimal then $\alpha/\beta \sim a/b$.

Proof. Jordan's inequality compares $\sin d(\alpha)$ with $d(\alpha)$ by nonzero ordinary constants, so their valuations agree; since $\sin \alpha = \sin d(\alpha)$, the first assertion follows. If $d(\alpha)$ is appreciable both quantities have positive ordinary standard part and valuation zero. Applying v to the sine law, the area formula, Heron's identity and the radius formulas gives the rest, nonzero ordinary constants having valuation zero. If, say, $v(a) < v(b), v(c)$, then b/a and c/a are positive infinitesimals whose sum is less than one, contradicting $a < b + c$; so no side can be the unique dominant valuation scale. Finally, when the two angles are infinitesimal, dividing the exact sine law by $\sin \alpha \sim \alpha$ and $\sin \beta \sim \beta$ gives the last relation. $\square$

The last statement is a non-Archimedean form of the triangle inequality. *It does not say that all three sides have equal valuation: a very short third side is possible.* Nor need one of $\sin \alpha, \sin \beta, \sin \gamma$ be appreciable: in a nearly flat triangle one angle is infinitesimally close to π and the other two are infinitesimal, so all three sines are infinitesimal.

Choosing a longest side and scaling it to length one, the remaining vertex is $x + iy$ with $y > 0$ and both coordinates finite, $0 < x < 1$; the normalized standard-part shadow is noncollinear exactly when y is appreciable. If y is infinitesimal the shadow loses information that remains visible in [equation \(8.3\)](#). Two further theorems quantify what it loses.

8.2 The triangle-inequality defect

Theorem 8.2 (A quadratic defect formula). *Let $u, v \neq 0$ with $a = |u|$, $b = |v|$, and let their unoriented angle be a nonzero infinitesimal δ . Set $D = a + b - |u + v|$. Then, exactly,*

$$D = \frac{4ab \sin^2(\delta/2)}{a + b + |u + v|}, \quad (8.4)$$

and

$$D \sim \frac{ab}{2(a+b)} \delta^2, \quad v(D) = v(a) + v(b) + 2v(\delta) - v(a+b). \quad (8.5)$$

No comparability assumption on a and b is required.

Proof. Squaring and subtracting, $(a+b)^2 - |u+v|^2 = 2ab(1 - \cos \delta) = 4ab \sin^2(\delta/2)$, and dividing by the positive sum of the square roots gives [equation \(8.4\)](#). Also

$$\frac{|u+v|^2}{(a+b)^2} = 1 - \frac{4ab}{(a+b)^2} \sin^2(\delta/2),$$

and since $0 < 4ab/(a+b)^2 \leq 1$ the subtracted term is infinitesimal, so the positive square root is 1 plus an infinitesimal. Hence the denominator in [equation \(8.4\)](#) is relatively equivalent to $2(a+b)$, while $4 \sin^2(\delta/2) \sim \delta^2$. $\square$

Unlike a bound that replaces $a + b$ by an ordinary real constant, this expression *detects the effective smaller scale* when a and b differ by many orders of magnitude: the factor $ab/(a + b)$ is comparable to the smaller of a and b .

8.3 Flat triangles: the normalized form and the relative threshold

The next two theorems are genuinely different statements and both are kept. The first normalizes coordinates and reads off every leading constant; the second imposes no normalization and isolates the correct *relative* flatness threshold.

Theorem 8.3 (Quadratic slack and reciprocal circumradius in normalized coordinates). *Let $A = 0$, $B = 1$, $C = x + iy$ where x is finite with $0 < \text{st}(x) < 1$ and $0 < y \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$, and put $a = \sqrt{(1-x)^2 + y^2}$, $b = \sqrt{x^2 + y^2}$, $c = 1$. Then, exactly,*

$$\alpha = \arctan(y/x), \quad \beta = \arctan(y/(1-x)), \quad \gamma = \pi - \alpha - \beta, \quad (8.6)$$

and

$$\alpha = \frac{y}{x} - \frac{y^3}{3x^3} + O(y^5), \quad \beta = \frac{y}{1-x} - \frac{y^3}{3(1-x)^3} + O(y^5), \quad (8.7)$$

$$a + b - 1 = \frac{y^2}{2x(1-x)} - \frac{y^4}{8} \left(\frac{1}{x^3} + \frac{1}{(1-x)^3} \right) + O(y^6), \quad (8.8)$$

$$R = \frac{x(1-x)}{2y} \left[1 + \frac{y^2}{2} \left(\frac{1}{x^2} + \frac{1}{(1-x)^2} \right) + O(y^4) \right], \quad r = \frac{y}{2} \left[1 - \frac{y^2}{4x(1-x)} + O(y^4) \right]. \quad (8.9)$$

Consequently

$$v(\alpha) = v(\beta) = v(\pi - \gamma) = v(y), \quad v(a + b - 1) = 2v(y), \quad v(R) = -v(y), \quad v(r) = v(y). \quad (8.10)$$

Proof. Both x and $1 - x$ are positive appreciable, so the base angles are acute and their slopes give [equation \(8.6\)](#); the inverse-tangent series [equation \(5.5\)](#) gives their expansions. Expanding $b = x\sqrt{1 + (y/x)^2}$ and $a = (1-x)\sqrt{1 + (y/(1-x))^2}$ by the binomial series — legitimate at these infinitesimal arguments by [theorem 2.2](#) — gives [equation \(8.8\)](#). Since $\Delta = y/2$, the exact radius formulas are $R = ab/(2y)$ and $r = y/(a + b + 1)$, and multiplication and geometric inversion yield the displayed expansions. Each indicated leading coefficient is positive appreciable, including the sum of the two leading angle coefficients, so taking valuations gives [equation \(8.10\)](#). $\square$

The theorem quantifies a phenomenon invisible in the ordinary standard-part shadow: the two small angles are first order in the height, the excess in the triangle inequality is second order, and the circumradius is of inverse order.

Theorem 8.4 (Exact gap identity and the relative flatness threshold). *Let a be a largest side of a nondegenerate triangle and put $B = b + c$, $\delta = B - a > 0$ and $h = \pi - \alpha$. Then $0 < \delta \leq \min(b, c)$ and*

$$4bc \sin^2(h/2) = \delta(2B - \delta), \quad \text{equivalently} \quad h = 2 \arcsin \sqrt{q}, \quad q = \frac{\delta(2B - \delta)}{4bc} \in (0, 1). \quad (8.11)$$

The defect h is infinitesimal if and only if

$$\delta \prec \frac{bc}{B}. \quad (8.12)$$

Under that criterion,

$$h = 2\sqrt{q} \left(1 + \frac{q}{6} + \frac{3q^2}{40} + \frac{5q^3}{112} + \cdots \right), \quad (8.13)$$

$$h \sim \sqrt{\frac{2B\delta}{bc}}, \quad \Delta \sim \sqrt{\frac{bcB\delta}{2}}, \quad R \sim \sqrt{\frac{Bbc}{8\delta}}, \quad (8.14)$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} v(h) &= \frac{1}{2}(v(\delta) + v(B) - v(b) - v(c)), \\ v(\Delta) &= \frac{1}{2}(v(\delta) + v(B) + v(b) + v(c)), \\ v(R) &= \frac{1}{2}(v(B) + v(b) + v(c) - v(\delta)). \end{aligned} \quad (8.15)$$

Proof. Since $a \geq \max(b, c)$, subtraction gives $\delta \leq \min(b, c)$. The cosine law with $\alpha = \pi - h$ gives $B^2 - a^2 = 2bc(1 - \cos h) = 4bc \sin^2(h/2)$, and $a = B - \delta$ turns this into [equation \(8.11\)](#); the half-angle formula $\sin^2(h/2) = \cos^2(\alpha/2) = s(s-a)/(bc)$ of [theorem 6.5](#) identifies the same quantity with q , and $h/2 \in (0, \pi/2)$ gives $h = 2 \arcsin \sqrt{q}$. The factor $2 - \delta/B$ lies between $3/2$ and 2 , because $\delta \leq \min(b, c) \leq B/2$; hence $\sin^2(h/2)$ is infinitesimal exactly when $\delta B/(bc)$ is, and since $0 < h/2 < \pi/2$ its sine is infinitesimal exactly when the angle is. This is the criterion.

Under the criterion δ/B is infinitesimal, because $\delta/B = (\delta B/(bc)) \cdot (bc/B^2)$ with $0 < bc/B^2 \leq 1/4$. The inverse-sine series gives [equation \(8.13\)](#). From [equation \(8.11\)](#) and $\sin(h/2) \sim h/2$ we get $bc h^2 \sim 2B\delta$, and positive square roots give the first equivalence in [equation \(8.14\)](#). The area law gives $\Delta = \frac{bc}{2} \sin h \sim \frac{bc}{2} h$, proving the second; and $a \sim B$ with $R = a/(2 \sin h) \sim B/(2h)$ gives the third. Taking valuations, and noting that $2B - \delta$ and B have the same valuation, proves [equation \(8.15\)](#). $\square$

The denominator bc/B is essential, and the hypothesis is deliberately *relative* rather than an absolute smallness assumption: since $bc/(b+c)$ is comparable to the smaller of b and c , the gap must be small relative to the *shorter adjacent side*, not merely relative to the total length. A defect that is small compared with the perimeter need not make the opposite angle close to π when one adjacent side is much shorter than the other. The square root of the side gap controls the angular defect while its reciprocal controls the circumradius; this is the same ramification as in [theorem 5.3](#).

Example 8.5 (A symmetric infinitesimal-height triangle). Take $x = 1/2$, $y = \varepsilon > 0$ infinitesimal in [theorem 8.3](#). Then

$$a = b = \frac{1}{2}\sqrt{1 + 4\varepsilon^2}, \quad \alpha = \beta = \arctan(2\varepsilon), \quad R = \frac{1}{8\varepsilon} + \frac{\varepsilon}{2},$$

$$r = \frac{\varepsilon}{1 + \sqrt{1 + 4\varepsilon^2}} = \frac{\varepsilon}{2} - \frac{\varepsilon^3}{2} + \varepsilon^5 + O(\varepsilon^7).$$

The circumradius is infinite although all vertices lie within a bounded ordinary region. Its existence is not contradicted by the fact that the standard-part points are collinear.

Example 8.6 (A symmetric flattening, seen through the gap). Let $0 < \tau \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$, $b = c = 1$, $a = 2 - \tau$, so $\delta = \tau$ and $B = 2$ in [theorem 8.4](#). Exactly,

$$H = \sqrt{\tau - \tau^2/4}, \quad \Delta = (1 - \tau/2)H, \quad R = \frac{1}{2H}, \quad h = 2 \arccos(1 - \tau/2), \quad \beta = \gamma = h/2,$$

with the strongly summable expansions

$$\begin{aligned} h &= 2\sqrt{\tau} \left(1 + \frac{\tau}{24} + \frac{3\tau^2}{640} + \frac{5\tau^3}{7168} + \cdots \right), \\ H &= \sqrt{\tau} \left(1 - \frac{\tau}{8} - \frac{\tau^2}{128} - \frac{\tau^3}{1024} + \cdots \right), \\ R &= \frac{1}{2\sqrt{\tau}} \left(1 + \frac{\tau}{8} + \frac{3\tau^2}{128} + \frac{5\tau^3}{1024} + \cdots \right). \end{aligned}$$

Here the side lengths have ordinary scale, the altitude and the area have square-root infinitesimal scale, and the circumradius is infinite.

Example 8.7 (An appreciable side gap can still be a flat degeneration). Take $b = c = \omega^2$ and $\delta = 1$, so $a = 2\omega^2 - 1$. The criterion [equation \(8.12\)](#) holds, since $bc/B = \omega^2/2$. Then $h \sim 2/\omega$, $\Delta \sim \omega^3$ and $R \sim \omega^3/2$: the triangle is angularly nearly flat although its area is infinite and its gap is the ordinary number 1. This is precisely why degeneration hypotheses must be stated relatively.

Example 8.8 (An infinite triangle of ordinary finite area). Let $L > 0$ be infinite and take $A = 0$, $B = L$, $C = L + i/L$. The legs at B are L and L^{-1} , and

$$\Delta = \frac{1}{2}, \quad \alpha = \arctan(L^{-2}), \quad \beta = \frac{\pi}{2}, \quad \gamma = \frac{\pi}{2} - \alpha,$$

with circumradius $\frac{1}{2}\sqrt{L^2 + L^{-2}}$ and inradius

$$r = \frac{L + L^{-1} - \sqrt{L^2 + L^{-2}}}{2} = \frac{1}{2L} - \frac{1}{4L^3} + O(L^{-7}).$$

The special case $L = \omega$ is the right triangle with vertices $0, \omega, i/\omega$, of legs ω and ω^{-1} , area exactly $1/2$, hypotenuse $\omega\sqrt{1 + \omega^{-4}}$, nonright angles $\arctan(\omega^{-2})$ and $\pi/2 - \arctan(\omega^{-2})$, and circumradius $\sim \omega/2$. Thus an infinite side, an infinitesimal side, an ordinary area and an infinitesimal angle coexist without disturbing a single triangle identity; standard parts of the normalized small angle alone would erase information essential to both the height and the area.

Example 8.9 (Two thin triangles on different scale hierarchies). Take $A = 0$, $B = L$, $C = x + ih$ with $0 < x < L$ and $0 < h \prec \min\{x, L - x\}$. Then, exactly, $\alpha = \arctan(h/x)$, $\beta = \arctan(h/(L - x))$, $\gamma = \pi - \alpha - \beta$, $\Delta = Lh/2$, and

$$R = \frac{\sqrt{x^2 + h^2}\sqrt{(L - x)^2 + h^2}}{2h} \sim \frac{x(L - x)}{2h}, \quad r \sim h/2.$$

For $L = \omega$, $x = \omega/2$, $h = 1$, both base angles equal $\arctan(2/\omega) = 2/\omega - 8/(3\omega^3) + \cdots$, while $R \sim \omega^2/8$, $r \sim 1/2$ and $\Delta = \omega/2$: infinite area, infinite circumradius, finite inradius, infinitesimal base angles. For $L = 1$, $x = \varepsilon$, $h = \varepsilon^2$ with $\varepsilon > 0$ infinitesimal, the two base angles sit on *different* scales, $\alpha \sim \varepsilon$ and $\beta \sim \varepsilon^2$, with $R \sim 1/(2\varepsilon)$ and $r \sim \varepsilon^2/2$. Both families obey exactly the same identities as ordinary triangles, but their scale information cannot be represented by ordinary positive real lengths and angles alone.

9 Trigonometric intersections, contact, and conditioning

This section specializes the finite-intersection viewpoint of [2, 3] to angular equations. Rather than invoke their general division and residue theorems, every instance is computed directly; the geometric theory above is therefore independent of them.

9.1 A complete first-harmonic intersection theorem

Theorem 9.1 (Amplitude–phase reduction and intersection count). *Let $A, B, D \in \mathbf{No}$ with $(A, B) \neq (0, 0)$ and $\rho = \sqrt{A^2 + B^2} > 0$, and choose the finite angle class ϕ with $\cos \phi = A/\rho$ and $\sin \phi = B/\rho$. Then*

$$A \cos \theta + B \sin \theta = \rho \cos(\theta - \phi), \quad (9.1)$$

and the equation $A \cos \theta + B \sin \theta = D$ has, modulo 2π in finite angles, no solution if $|D| > \rho$, exactly one if $|D| = \rho$, and exactly two if $|D| < \rho$, namely $\theta = \phi \pm \arccos(D/\rho)$. The single solution at $|D| = \rho$ has multiplicity two: the first angular derivative vanishes there and the second equals $\mp \rho \neq 0$. Writing $\mathcal{D} = \rho^2 - D^2$, the two unit points at $\mathcal{D} > 0$ are

$$(X, Y) = \frac{D}{\rho^2}(A, B) \pm \frac{\sqrt{\mathcal{D}}}{\rho^2}(-B, A), \quad (9.2)$$

the absolute angular derivative of the left-hand side at either simple solution is $\sqrt{\mathcal{D}}$, and the Jacobian determinant of $X^2 + Y^2 - 1$ and $AX + BY - D$ has absolute value $2\sqrt{\mathcal{D}}$.

Proof. Polar decomposition (theorem 4.2) gives ϕ , and the cosine subtraction identity proves equation (9.1). The range, strict monotonicity and inverse cosine on $[0, \pi]$ (theorem 3.2, theorem 5.1) give the count, including both endpoints, where the two signs coincide modulo 2π . For the explicit points use the orthonormal coordinates $U = (AX + BY)/\rho$ and $W = (-BX + AY)/\rho$: the equations become $U = D/\rho$ and $W^2 = 1 - D^2/\rho^2 = \mathcal{D}/\rho^2$. The angular derivative is $-A \sin \theta + B \cos \theta = BX - AY = -\rho W$, of absolute value $\sqrt{\mathcal{D}}$, and the stated Jacobian expresses the same transversality. $\square$

Geometrically this is the complete intersection classification of a line $AX + BY = D$ with the unit circle. Neither an infinite normal vector nor an infinitesimal distance from tangency creates an exception. If $A = B = 0$ the equation instead holds for every angle when $D = 0$ and for none otherwise. This also settles the side–side–angle ambiguity left open after theorem 6.4: the ray–circle problem is exactly this quadratic.

9.2 Square-root splitting and its conditioning

Theorem 9.2 (Tangency, angular splitting, and loss of valuation). *In theorem 9.1 suppose $D = \rho(1 - \tau)$ with $0 < \tau \in \mathbf{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$. The two solutions near ϕ are*

$$\theta_{\pm} = \phi \pm \sqrt{2\tau} \left(1 + \frac{\tau}{12} + \frac{3\tau^2}{160} + O(\tau^3) \right), \quad (9.3)$$

their separation has valuation $\frac{1}{2}v(\tau)$, and the derivatives of the left-hand side at these roots have absolute value $\rho\sqrt{\tau(2-\tau)}$. If $e \neq 0$ and $e \prec \tau$, then with $q(\tau) = \arccos(1 - \tau)$ one has $\tau + e > 0$ and

$$q(\tau + e) - q(\tau) = \frac{e}{\sqrt{\tau(2-\tau)}}(1 + O(e/\tau)), \quad (9.4)$$

the correction factor having standard part one; in particular

$$v(q(\tau + e) - q(\tau)) = v(e) - \frac{1}{2}v(\tau). \quad (9.5)$$

Proof. Equation (9.3) is theorem 5.3, and the separation is $2q(\tau)$, whose valuation is unchanged by the ordinary factor two. Differentiating equation (9.1) gives magnitude $\rho \sin q(\tau)$ and $\sin q(\tau) = \sqrt{1 - (1 - \tau)^2} = \sqrt{\tau(2 - \tau)}$. For the perturbation formula write $e = \tau u$ with u infinitesimal; the exact expression $q(\tau) = \sqrt{2\tau}H(\tau)$ from equation (5.6), with $H(0) = 1$, may be expanded in the two infinitesimals τ, u . Its first derivative in e is $1/\sqrt{\tau(2 - \tau)}$, and every later term contains, relative to that first term, a factor $u = e/\tau$ times a finite factor; the substitution is support-controlled by theorem 2.2. The first term being nonzero and the parenthesized multiplier a unit of standard part one gives equation (9.5). $\square$

The loss of one half of $v(\tau)$ is the inverse-Jacobian loss at a nearly double root. *The condition $e \prec \tau$ cannot be omitted from a uniform branch-matching theorem: $e = -\tau$ merges the roots, and $e < -\tau$ destroys the two real intersections.*

Example 9.3 (An infinite tangent coordinate). The line $X = -1 + \tau$ meets the unit circle near -1 in the two points $Y = \pm\sqrt{\tau(2 - \tau)}$, whose half-angle coordinates from equation (4.8) are $t = \pm\sqrt{(2 - \tau)/\tau}$, and these are *infinite* even though the points and their angles are finite. Rational circle coordinates and finite angles therefore complement each other rather than having identical size behaviour.

Theorem 9.4 (The cosine fold). *Let $\tau \in \mathbf{msc}$. If $\tau \neq 0$, the solutions in the infinitesimal monad of zero of $\cos \theta = 1 - \tau$ are exactly*

$$\theta_{\pm} = \pm 2 \arcsin_{\inf} \sqrt{\tau/2} = \pm \sqrt{2\tau} \left(1 + \frac{\tau}{12} + \frac{3\tau^2}{160} + \frac{5\tau^3}{896} + \cdots \right), \quad (9.6)$$

where $\arcsin_{\inf}$ is the zero-centred formal inverse-sine germ and either square root may be selected. Both are simple, with $v(\theta_{\pm}) = \frac{1}{2}v(\tau)$ exactly. If $\tau = 0$, zero is the unique root there, of multiplicity two. For real $\tau > 0$ both roots are real; for real $\tau < 0$ there is no real solution near zero, but there are exactly two conjugate purely imaginary surcomplex solutions, each of multiplicity one.

Proof. On the infinitesimal monad, $1 - \cos \theta = 2 \sin^2(\theta/2)$, and $\theta \mapsto \sin(\theta/2)$ is a germ with nonzero linear coefficient, hence a bijection of that monad onto itself with inverse $w \mapsto 2 \arcsin_{\inf} w$; all its formal inverse identities evaluate by theorem 2.2. The equation becomes $w^2 = \tau/2$, with exactly the two stated roots. At a nonzero root $\sin \theta = 2 \sin(\theta/2) \cos(\theta/2) \neq 0$, so the derivative is nonzero; at $\tau = 0$, $\cos \theta - 1 = -\theta^2/2 + \cdots$ gives the double root. The expansion is equation (5.6). Its coefficients are real and its germ odd, so a real positive square root produces real roots and a purely imaginary square root produces purely imaginary ones, while a real square cannot equal $\tau/2 < 0$. $\square$

The complex multiplicity is constant across this real bifurcation, which is the one-variable version of the finite-algebra viewpoint of [2]. The explicit inverse germ supplies the proof; no sequence of Newton approximations is used as a convergence argument. The same phenomenon in the strip is visible in theorem 12.2.

9.3 The rank-two algebra that survives the collision

Put $d = \mathcal{D}/\rho^2$ in [theorem 9.1](#). Over $\mathbf{SC}$ the coordinate algebra of the line–circle intersection is

$$\mathcal{A}_d = \mathbf{SC}[W]/(W^2 - d), \quad (9.7)$$

whose elements are the unique remainders $a + bW$ with $W^2 = d$ defining the multiplication; this interprets the notation as a class algebra without forming a collection of proper-class cosets. It has basis $1, W$ and dimension two for every d , including $d = 0$ and negative real d . When $d < 0$ there are no real points but the two complexified points still exist; when $d = 0$ there is a single point with the nonreduced algebra of dual numbers. This is the precise sense in which multiplicity survives the change in the number of real solutions.

Theorem 9.5 (A collision-stable residue pairing). *Define $\Lambda_d : \mathcal{A}_d \rightarrow \mathbf{SC}$ by $\Lambda_d(a + bW) = b$, the coefficient of W in the unique remainder. The pairing $(f, g) \mapsto \Lambda_d(fg)$ is nondegenerate for every d , with matrix*

$$\begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \quad (9.8)$$

in the basis $1, W$, of determinant -1 . If $d \neq 0$ and $s^2 = d$ then for every polynomial g ,

$$\Lambda_d(g) = \frac{g(s)}{2s} + \frac{g(-s)}{-2s} = \frac{g(s) - g(-s)}{2s}, \quad (9.9)$$

which is exactly the sum of the two simple residues of $g(W)/(W^2 - d)$; at $d = 0$ the corresponding formula is $\Lambda_0(g) = g'(0)$. The trace of multiplication by g is $\Lambda_d(2Wg)$.

Proof. The relation $W^2 = d$ gives $\Lambda_d(1) = 0$, $\Lambda_d(W) = 1$ and $\Lambda_d(W^2) = \Lambda_d(d) = 0$, which is [equation \(9.8\)](#). Reducing g modulo $W^2 - d$ gives $g = a + bW$, whose values at $\pm s$ are $a \pm bs$, so the right-hand side of [equation \(9.9\)](#) is b . At $d = 0$ the reduction is $g(0) + g'(0)W$, and the coefficient of W^{-1} in $g(W)/W^2$ is $g'(0)$. Finally multiplication by $a + bW$ has matrix $\begin{pmatrix} a & bd \\ b & a \end{pmatrix}$, of trace $2a = \Lambda_d(2W(a + bW))$. $\square$

For infinitesimal positive d the two residues in [equation \(9.9\)](#) may individually be infinite while their sum remains well behaved: for $g = 1$ they are $\pm(2\sqrt{d})^{-1}$ and cancel exactly, while for $g = W$ they are both $1/2$ and sum to 1. This elementary model exhibits the structural phenomenon emphasized in [2, 3]: *the quotient and its pairing are more stable than the list of separated simple points.*

9.4 A coupled four-point angular collision

Consider two infinitesimal angles $\alpha, \beta \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{C}}$ and parameters $s, u \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{C}}$ with

$$\sin^2 \alpha + \sin^2 \beta = s, \quad \sin \alpha \sin \beta = u. \quad (9.10)$$

(Here, and only here, the letters s, u denote these parameters rather than a semiperimeter or a unit direction.) Set $x = \sin \alpha$, $y = \sin \beta$ and then $X = x + y$, $Y = x - y$; both coordinate changes are invertible analytic germs, and the system becomes

$$X^2 = s + 2u, \quad Y^2 = s - 2u. \quad (9.11)$$

The associated finite intersection algebra is

$$\mathcal{B}_{s,u} = \mathbf{SC}[X, Y] / (X^2 - s - 2u, Y^2 - s + 2u).$$

Division by the two monic quadratics gives the basis $1, X, Y, XY$, so $\dim_{\mathbf{SC}} \mathcal{B}_{s,u} = 4$ for *every* infinitesimal parameter value. Every support point lies in the infinitesimal monad, since its coordinate squares are infinitesimal; the total complex multiplicity there is therefore always four. *This is the algebra of the entire finite zero set, not the local algebra at one selected root*: it decomposes into the local algebras of the distinct roots, and the invertible analytic sine-coordinate changes preserve each local multiplicity. The angle solutions are

$$\alpha = \arcsin \frac{\epsilon_1 \sqrt{s+2u} + \epsilon_2 \sqrt{s-2u}}{2}, \quad \beta = \arcsin \frac{\epsilon_1 \sqrt{s+2u} - \epsilon_2 \sqrt{s-2u}}{2}, \quad (9.12)$$

with $\epsilon_1, \epsilon_2 \in \{1, -1\}$ and repetitions counted by local multiplicity; the square-root choices may be fixed arbitrarily and the sign choices exhaust them.

For real infinitesimal parameters there are four distinct real solutions exactly when $s + 2u > 0$ and $s - 2u > 0$; if precisely one of those quantities vanishes and the other is positive there are two distinct real solutions of multiplicity two; at $s = u = 0$ there is one solution of multiplicity four; if either quantity is negative no solution has both angles real, because real X, Y have nonnegative squares; and if neither vanishes there are always four distinct complex solutions. The angular Jacobian is

$$J = 2 \cos \alpha \cos \beta (x^2 - y^2) = 2 \cos \alpha \cos \beta XY,$$

whose vanishing locus in parameter space is $s^2 - 4u^2 = 0$. The cosine factors are units in the infinitesimal monad, so they change neither the collision locus nor any multiplicity. This is the only genuinely multivariable instance in this report, and the dimension four is a *total* multiplicity, not a claim about any individual root.

9.5 Three stability certificates, and what each is for

The remainder of this section proves two sharp perturbation theorems; a third, of a different shape, is [theorem 12.1](#) below. They are genuinely different statements and none subsumes another, so all three are kept.

- [Theorem 9.7](#) bounds the *displacement of one simple root* of a trigonometric polynomial with finite coefficients under a perturbation of coefficient valuation σ , under the threshold $\sigma > 2\kappa$ with $\kappa = v(f'(a))$, and [theorem 9.8](#) proves both that the threshold cannot be weakened to $\sigma \geq 2\kappa$ and that both displayed exponents are attained. It is the sharpest statement available when one tracks a single named root of a polynomial with finite coefficients.
- [Theorem 9.9](#) instead inverts *one scalar function*, the inverse cosine, at a prescribed interior angle, and supplies the second-order term $-c\varepsilon^2/(2s^3)$ together with a remainder bound $v(\mathcal{R}) \geq 3\sigma - 5\kappa$. It is sharper than [theorem 9.7](#) whenever the second-order behaviour of the inverse is what one needs, and it applies at an angle rather than to a polynomial; its own sharpness construction is different and explicit.
- [Theorem 12.1](#) certifies instead an *exact multiplicity* for a whole cluster of roots, together with a coefficient-support bound, and makes no smallness demand beyond infinitesimality. It is the right tool when roots collide and individual displacements are not the object of interest, and it is the only one of the three that survives a multiple unperturbed root.

Lemma 9.6 (A simple residue root of a polynomial). *Let $H(Y)$ be a real polynomial with finite surreal coefficients whose coefficientwise standard part is $Y + b_0$, $b_0 \in \mathbb{R}$. Then H has exactly one root with standard part $-b_0$, and that root is simple.*

Proof. Put $y_0 = -b_0$ and $\eta = H(y_0) \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$. If $\eta = 0$ then y_0 is a root. Otherwise choose a positive infinitesimal ϱ with $|\eta| \prec \varrho$, for instance $\varrho = \sqrt{|\eta|}$. Polynomial expansion gives $H(y_0 \pm \varrho) = \eta \pm \varrho(1 + \vartheta_{\pm})$ with $\vartheta_{\pm} \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$, so the two values have opposite signs, and the polynomial intermediate-value property of the real closed field $\mathbf{No}$ supplies a root between them. For any finite y, z with the required standard part the divided difference is 1 plus an infinitesimal, because the polynomial is finite and its reduced polynomial is linear; hence it is nonzero, which proves uniqueness, and the corresponding derivative calculation proves simplicity. $\square$

This replaces a Newton-iteration limit by a single intermediate-value step with an infinitesimal test radius — the only available substitute, since by [theorem 2.4](#) a Newton sequence has no fine-topological limit to converge to.

Theorem 9.7 (Sharp angular root-stability bound). *Let f be a real-valued trigonometric polynomial with finite coefficients — i.e. each Laurent coefficient lies in $\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{C}}$, finite in magnitude, not finite in number — and let $a \in \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}$ be a simple zero. Put $A = f'(a)$ and $\kappa = v(A) \geq 0$. Let g be a real-valued trigonometric polynomial all of whose Laurent coefficients have valuation at least σ , where*

$$\sigma > 2\kappa. \quad (9.13)$$

Then $f + g$ has exactly one zero $a + h$ in the angular neighbourhood $v(h) > \kappa$; it is simple, and

$$v(h) \geq \sigma - \kappa, \quad (9.14)$$

$$v\left(h + \frac{g(a)}{f'(a)}\right) \geq 2\sigma - 3\kappa. \quad (9.15)$$

The assertion holds for value groups of arbitrary rank; σ and κ need not be real numbers.

Proof. All Taylor coefficients of $f(a + H)$ are finite, and those of $g(a + H)$ have valuation at least σ , since only finitely many frequencies occur and $\text{cis } a$ has valuation zero. Write

$$f(a + H) = AH + Q(H), \quad g(a + H) = g(a) + BH + Q_g(H),$$

where Q, Q_g have order at least two with coefficient valuations at least 0 and σ respectively, and $v(B) \geq \sigma$. Set $r = \sigma - \kappa > \kappa$ and $\lambda = t^r$. Formally substituting $H = \lambda Y$ and dividing by $A\lambda$ gives $Y + b + P(Y)$ with $b = g(a)/(A\lambda) \in \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}$, every nonconstant error coefficient of P having strictly positive valuation: the normalized degree- j term with $j \geq 2$ has valuation at least $(j - 1)r - \kappa > 0$.

To turn this into an existence proof without an iteration limit, use the exact rational chart of [theorem 4.5](#),

$$H = 2 \arctan(\lambda Y/2), \quad \text{cis}(a + H) = \text{cis } a \cdot C(\lambda Y/2).$$

Since f and g have finite trigonometric degree, their pullbacks are rational functions of Y ; clearing the common denominator, whose standard part is one for finite Y , and dividing by $A\lambda$, yields a finite polynomial whose coefficientwise reduction is $Y + \text{st}(b)$. The chart's difference from $H = \lambda Y$ begins in degree three and also has positive normalized valuation. [Theorem 9.6](#) now gives a finite root, whence h with $v(h) \geq r$: this is existence and [equation \(9.14\)](#).

For uniqueness on the whole stated neighbourhood take $v(h_1), v(h_2) > \kappa$. Strong Taylor divided differences give $(f + g)(a + h_1) - (f + g)(a + h_2) = (A + D)(h_1 - h_2)$ with $v(D) \geq \min\{v(h_1), v(h_2), \sigma\} >$

κ , so $A + D \neq 0$; the same estimate for the derivative at the new root proves simplicity. These divided-difference series are legitimate strong sums: each nonlinear term introduces an infinitesimal factor, and the finitely many original coefficient supports give a common well-ordered support by [theorem 2.2](#).

Finally the root equation gives $h + A^{-1}g(a) = -A^{-1}(Q(h) + Bh + Q_g(h))$, and $v(h) \geq r$ bounds its valuation below by $\min\{2r - \kappa, \sigma + r - \kappa, \sigma + 2r - \kappa\} = 2\sigma - 3\kappa$, which is [equation \(9.15\)](#). $\square$

This is the scalar angular counterpart of the inverse-Jacobian theorem of [3, §9], with a direct algebraic existence argument available because a trigonometric polynomial becomes rational in a tangent chart.

Proposition 9.8 (The threshold and both exponents are sharp). *For uniform simple-root persistence, $\sigma > 2\kappa$ cannot be weakened to $\sigma \geq 2\kappa$, and the exponents in [equation \(9.14\)](#) and [equation \(9.15\)](#) are attained.*

Proof. Let $0 < \tau \in \mathbf{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$ and $f(\theta) = \sin^2 \theta - \tau^2$. At $a = \arcsin \tau$, $f'(a) = 2\tau\sqrt{1 - \tau^2}$, so $\kappa = v(\tau)$. Adding the constant $g = \tau^2$, of valuation 2κ , merges the two roots near zero into the double root of $\sin^2 \theta$: at $\sigma = 2\kappa$ there is no uniform simple-root persistence.

For $g = d$ with $v(d) = \sigma > 2\kappa$, the root near a is $a + h = \arcsin \sqrt{\tau^2 - d}$, and expansion in the infinitesimal ratio d/τ^2 gives

$$h = -\frac{d}{2\tau\sqrt{1 - \tau^2}} + \frac{(2\tau^2 - 1)d^2}{8\tau^3(1 - \tau^2)^{3/2}} + \text{terms of higher valuation.}$$

The first coefficient has valuation $-\kappa$ and the second -3κ , while successive terms gain at least $\sigma - 2\kappa > 0$ in valuation. Thus $v(h) = \sigma - \kappa$ and $v(h + g(a)/f'(a)) = 2\sigma - 3\kappa$ for this family: both estimates are equalities. The expansion is justified by strong binomial and inverse-sine composition, not by any rank-one convergence assertion. $\square$

Theorem 9.9 (Conditioned inversion of cosine). *Let $\theta \in (0, \pi)$, $c = \cos \theta$, $s = \sin \theta > 0$, and let $0 \neq \varepsilon \in \mathbf{No}$ satisfy*

$$\sigma := v(\varepsilon) > 2\kappa, \quad \kappa := v(s) \geq 0. \quad (9.16)$$

Then $c + \varepsilon \in (-1, 1)$, and with $h = \arccos(c + \varepsilon) - \theta$,

$$h = -\frac{\varepsilon}{s} - \frac{c\varepsilon^2}{2s^3} + \mathcal{R}, \quad v(\mathcal{R}) \geq 3\sigma - 5\kappa, \quad v(h) = \sigma - \kappa, \quad v\left(h + \frac{\varepsilon}{s}\right) \geq 2\sigma - 3\kappa. \quad (9.17)$$

The strict threshold in [equation \(9.16\)](#) cannot be weakened to equality uniformly near an extremum.

Proof. The distance from c to the nearer endpoint of $[-1, 1]$ is $1 - |c| = s^2/(1 + |c|)$. Condition [equation \(9.16\)](#) says that ε/s^2 is infinitesimal, so $|\varepsilon|$ is smaller than that distance; hence $c + \varepsilon \in (-1, 1)$.

Set $u = \varepsilon/s^2$ and write $h = sq$. The addition formula gives

$$\frac{\cos(\theta + sq) - c}{s^2} = c \frac{\cos(sq) - 1}{s^2} - \frac{\sin(sq)}{s} = -q - \frac{c}{2}q^2 + \frac{s^2}{6}q^3 + \cdots, \quad (9.18)$$

every coefficient on the right being a polynomial with rational coefficients in the finite parameters c and s^2 , and the linear coefficient being -1 . Formal inversion therefore yields $q = -u - \frac{c}{2}u^2 + u^3H(u)$ with every coefficient of H again such a polynomial. Evaluation at the infinitesimal u is legitimate: write the finitely many parameters as ordinary standard parts plus infinitesimals; all expanded

terms are supported in the positive monoid generated by those infinitesimals and u , and positive powers of u ensure a finite contribution at each exponent (theorem 2.2, and theorem 2.3(ii) for why finitely many parameters suffice). Thus $H(u)$ is finite, $v(H(u)) \geq 0$.

The constructed $h = sq$ has $h/s \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$ and therefore stays inside the same interior-angle branch, the distance to either endpoint being at least s because $s = \sin \theta \leq \min(\theta, \pi - \theta)$ by theorem 3.2. It solves the desired equation, so strict monotonicity of cosine identifies it with the stated difference of inverse values. Multiplying the inverse series by s gives $\mathcal{R} = su^3H(u)$ with $v(\mathcal{R}) \geq \kappa + 3(\sigma - 2\kappa) = 3\sigma - 5\kappa$, while the linear term has valuation $\sigma - \kappa$ and every later term strictly larger valuation.

For sharpness let $\eta > 0$ be infinitesimal and put $c = 1 - \eta$, so $s^2 = 2\eta - \eta^2$ has valuation $v(\eta)$. Taking $\varepsilon = \eta$ gives $\sigma = 2\kappa$ and moves the target to 1, merging the two real roots, so the perturbed root is no longer simple; taking $\varepsilon = 2\eta$, of the same valuation, moves the target above 1 and the real solutions disappear altogether. A uniform simple-root stability theorem therefore cannot replace $>$ by $\geq$. $\square$

The roles of the two powers of the small derivative are now explicit: one factor of s^{-1} amplifies the displacement, the other measures how close the target is to a critical value. The leading displacement has order $\sigma - \kappa$ and the nonlinear correction order at least $2\sigma - 3\kappa$, matching the inverse-Jacobian pattern of [3]. Near a noncritical ordinary angle, $\kappa = 0$ and the condition is simply that the target perturbation be infinitesimal.

10 Canonical complex trigonometry on a class-sized strip

10.1 Real exponential and hyperbolic functions

We use the established Gonshor exponential $\exp_{\mathbf{No}} : (\mathbf{No}, +) \rightarrow (\mathbf{No}_{>0}, \cdot)$ and its inverse $\log_{\mathbf{No}}$ [5, 7]. They are order-preserving group isomorphisms, agree with the ordinary real functions, and satisfy

$$\exp_{\mathbf{No}}(x + h) = \exp_{\mathbf{No}}(x) \operatorname{Exp}_{\mathfrak{m}}(h) \quad (h \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}). \quad (10.1)$$

For every $y \in \mathbf{No}$ put $\sinh y = \frac{1}{2}(\exp_{\mathbf{No}} y - \exp_{\mathbf{No}}(-y))$ and $\cosh y = \frac{1}{2}(\exp_{\mathbf{No}} y + \exp_{\mathbf{No}}(-y))$; the hyperbolic addition identities, $\cosh^2 y - \sinh^2 y = 1$ and the usual derivatives follow from the group law and equation (10.1), and $\sinh y = 0$ exactly at $y = 0$. For $x \geq 1$ set $\operatorname{arcosh} x = \log_{\mathbf{No}}(x + \sqrt{x^2 - 1})$ and, for $|x| < 1$, $\operatorname{artanh} x = \frac{1}{2} \log_{\mathbf{No}} \frac{1+x}{1-x}$; the real exponential identities show these are the inverses of $\cosh$ on $\mathbf{No}_{\geq 0}$ and of $\tanh$.

10.2 Two complementary strips and an exponential quotient

Define the additive subclasses

$$\mathcal{H} = \{x + iy : x \in \mathbf{No}, y \in \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}\}, \quad \mathcal{V} = \{x + iy : x \in \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}, y \in \mathbf{No}\},$$

so that $i\mathcal{V} = \mathcal{H}$. These are *not* fixed-width ordinary strips. On the first define

$$E(x + iy) = \exp_{\mathbf{No}}(x) \operatorname{cis} y. \quad (10.2)$$

Theorem 10.1 (Canonical strip exponential). *The map $E : \mathcal{H} \rightarrow \mathbf{SC}^{\times}$ is a surjective group homomorphism with kernel $2\pi i\mathbb{Z}$. It is fine-locally analytic and satisfies $E(z + h) = E(z) \operatorname{Exp}_{\mathfrak{m}}(h)$*

for infinitesimal $h \in \mathbf{SC}$ and $E'(z) = E(z)$. Consequently

$$\mathcal{V}/(2\pi\mathbb{Z}) \longrightarrow \mathbf{SC}^\times, \quad [z] \longmapsto E(iz), \quad (10.3)$$

is a group isomorphism.

Proof. The group law follows from the real exponential and finite-angle addition. If $E(x + iy) = 1$ its norm forces $x = 0$ and [theorem 4.2](#) forces $y \in 2\pi\mathbb{Z}$. For $w \neq 0$ choose a finite angle θ of w ; then $E(\log_{\mathbf{No}} |w| + i\theta) = w$. The local formula follows by splitting an infinitesimal increment into real and imaginary parts and using [equation \(10.1\)](#); this is an exact strongly summable local expansion, valid even when $E(z)$ is infinite, since multiplication by a fixed surcomplex coefficient preserves strong summability and one may choose a sufficiently small fine neighbourhood. Multiplication by i proves [equation \(10.3\)](#). $\square$

The quotient is an algebraic statement, not a claim that this class strip is a classical topological universal covering space.

Definition 10.2 (Canonical strip sine and cosine). For $z \in \mathcal{V}$ set

$$\text{Sin } z = \frac{E(iz) - E(-iz)}{2i}, \quad \text{Cos } z = \frac{E(iz) + E(-iz)}{2}. \quad (10.4)$$

When z is a finite real surreal these are the lowercase functions already defined; when z is finite surcomplex they are the Taylor lifts of the ordinary entire complex sine and cosine.

Theorem 10.3 (Complex-variable identities and zero sets). For $z = x + iy \in \mathcal{V}$,

$$\text{Sin}(x + iy) = \sin x \cosh y + i \cos x \sinh y, \quad \text{Cos}(x + iy) = \cos x \cosh y - i \sin x \sinh y, \quad (10.5)$$

$$|\text{Sin}(x + iy)|^2 = \sin^2 x + \sinh^2 y, \quad |\text{Cos}(x + iy)|^2 = \cos^2 x + \sinh^2 y. \quad (10.6)$$

On the entire strip the addition identities, $\text{Sin}^2 z + \text{Cos}^2 z = 1$, $\text{Sin}' = \text{Cos}$ and $\text{Cos}' = -\text{Sin}$ hold exactly, and Sin, Cos are fine-locally analytic. The zeros of Sin are precisely $\pi\mathbb{Z}$ and those of Cos precisely $\pi/2 + \pi\mathbb{Z}$; all are simple, and $\text{Tan} = \text{Sin} / \text{Cos}$ has simple poles at the latter points.

Proof. Insert [equation \(10.2\)](#) into [equation \(10.4\)](#) and use the real hyperbolic definitions for the first two formulas; squaring real and imaginary parts and using $\cosh^2 y = 1 + \sinh^2 y$ gives the norm identities. All other identities follow algebraically from the group law for E and its local derivative. A zero in either norm identity forces $\sinh y = 0$, hence $y = 0$ since the real exponential is injective; a sum of nonnegative squares in $\mathbf{No}$ vanishes only if each term does. The kernel of cis then gives the listed zeros, whose derivatives are ± 1 , giving simplicity and the pole statement. $\square$

In particular $\text{Sin}(i\omega) = i \sinh \omega$ is canonically defined, even though this construction prescribes no value for $\sin \omega$: *infinite growth along an imaginary direction and infinite oscillation along a real direction are different problems.*

Theorem 10.4 (Surjectivity and complete fibres of strip sine). Every $w \in \mathbf{SC}$ is $\text{Sin } z$ for some $z \in \mathcal{V}$. Modulo 2π it has exactly two preimages counted with multiplicity, and the two coincide exactly when $w = 1$ or $w = -1$. For $z_1, z_2 \in \mathcal{V}$,

$$\text{Sin } z_1 = \text{Sin } z_2 \iff z_1 - z_2 \in 2\pi\mathbb{Z} \text{ or } z_1 + z_2 \in \pi + 2\pi\mathbb{Z}. \quad (10.7)$$

Cosine is likewise surjective, since $\text{Cos } z = \text{Sin}(z + \pi/2)$.

Proof. Put $u = E(iz)$; the equation $\text{Sin } z = w$ becomes the quadratic

$$u^2 - 2iwu - 1 = 0. \quad (10.8)$$

The algebraically closed field $\mathbf{SC}$ supplies two roots counted with multiplicity, both nonzero since their product is -1 , and each has exactly one preimage modulo 2π by [theorem 10.1](#). The discriminant is $4(1 - w^2)$, which gives the multiplicity assertion. Alternatively, subtracting the two sine values and using $\text{Sin } z_1 - \text{Sin } z_2 = 2 \text{Cos } \frac{z_1 + z_2}{2} \text{Sin } \frac{z_1 - z_2}{2}$ together with the zero sets of [theorem 10.3](#) gives [equation \(10.7\)](#). $\square$

Corollary 10.5 (Explicit inverse branches). *For $w \in \mathbf{SC}$ solve [equation \(10.8\)](#), $u = iw \pm \sqrt{1 - w^2}$; neither root is zero. For either root take a finite argument $x = \text{Arg}(u)$ and put*

$$z = x - i \log_{\mathbf{No}} |u|. \quad (10.9)$$

Then $\text{Sin } z = w$, and all solutions in $\mathcal{V}$ are $z + 2\pi k$ and $\pi - z + 2\pi k$, $k \in \mathbb{Z}$. For example, for real $w > 1$, including infinite w ,

$$z = \frac{\pi}{2} \pm i \log_{\mathbf{No}}(w + \sqrt{w^2 - 1})$$

are the two solution classes.

Proof. Equation [equation \(10.9\)](#) gives $E(iz) = u$ by [theorem 10.1](#), and the second root of the quadratic is $-u^{-1}$, while $E(i(\pi - z)) = -E(iz)^{-1}$; [theorem 10.4](#) does the rest. $\square$

Thus canonical complex trigonometry is confined neither to finite surcomplex values nor to finite imaginary arguments, and no phase at an infinite *real* argument is needed even to solve $\text{Sin } z = w$ for an arbitrary surcomplex target. This is a genuine extension of inverse complex trigonometry to infinitely large values, with the choice of real exponential stated explicitly. The unresolved phase choice is specifically at infinite real arguments, and [section 17](#) is devoted to it.

11 Trigonometric polynomials and sharp algebraic root counts

Let $n \in \mathbb{N}$ be ordinary and $c_{-n}, \dots, c_n \in \mathbf{SC}$ arbitrary. Define on $\mathcal{V}$

$$T(z) = \sum_{k=-n}^n c_k E(ikz). \quad (11.1)$$

This is a *finite* sum, so arbitrary surreal sizes of the coefficients cause no summability problem; on finite real angles it is the trigonometric polynomial $T(\theta) = \sum_k c_k \text{cis}(k\theta)$, equivalently the Laurent polynomial $T(u) = \sum_k c_k u^k$ on $\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$. It is real-valued on finite real angles exactly when $c_{-k} = \bar{c}_k$ for all k .

Theorem 11.1 (Algebraization and the $2n$ root bound). *Suppose $T \neq 0$ and set*

$$P(U) = \sum_{k=-n}^n c_k U^{k+n}. \quad (11.2)$$

Under $U = E(iz)$, the zeros of T modulo 2π correspond bijectively, and with multiplicity, to the nonzero roots of P . Hence T has at most $2n$ zeros modulo 2π , counted with multiplicity, on all of $\mathcal{V}$, and exactly $2n$ if $c_{-n}c_n \neq 0$; in particular the number of finite real angular zeros is at most $2n$, a bound attained by $\sin(n\theta)$, which has the $2n$ distinct simple classes $\theta = k\pi/n$.

Proof. The identity $T(z) = U^{-n}P(U)$ and the bijection [equation \(10.3\)](#) give the set-theoretic correspondence. Near a point with value $U_0 \neq 0$,

$$E(i(z+h)) = U_0 \text{Exp}_{\mathfrak{m}}(ih) = U_0 + iU_0h + O(h^2)$$

has nonzero linear coefficient, and substitution by such a formal local coordinate preserves the order of a zero; multiplication by the unit U^{-n} also preserves it. Polynomial factorization in $\mathbf{SC}$ gives the total number of nonzero roots as $\deg P - \text{ord}_0 P \leq 2n$, with equality when both endpoint coefficients are nonzero. $\square$

The degree bound is an ordinary finite integer even when the coefficients have arbitrary infinite normal forms. This is the definition of angular multiplicity used throughout: in a local angular coordinate the derivative is a unit, so the angular multiplicity of a zero of T is, and equals, the polynomial multiplicity of P . There cannot be a nonzero finite trigonometric polynomial vanishing at every ordinary real angle, since its associated polynomial would have infinitely many distinct ordinary unit-circle roots; this also proves uniqueness of the finite Fourier coefficients over $\mathbf{SC}$. Infinitesimal coefficients can split a multiple zero into a cluster, as in [theorem 9.4](#) and [theorem 12.1](#), but cannot violate the total-degree bound.

Corollary 11.2 (Chebyshev and extremum equations). *For an ordinary $n \geq 1$ and $w \in \mathbf{SC}$, the equation $\text{Cos}(nz) = w$ has exactly $2n$ solutions modulo 2π counted with multiplicity. For a nonconstant real trigonometric polynomial of degree at most n , its derivative has at most $2n$ finite real zeros modulo 2π .*

Proof. The associated equation for the first assertion is $U^{2n} - 2wU^n + 1 = 0$, with nonzero constant and leading coefficients. For the second, differentiation multiplies c_k by ik , preserves the frequency band, and does not annihilate a nonconstant polynomial in characteristic zero; apply [theorem 11.1](#). $\square$

The derivative statement bounds stationary angles; it does not invoke a general compactness or extreme-value theorem on a surreal interval. On all of $\mathbf{No}$, after a global extension has been chosen in [section 17](#), trigonometric polynomials repeat their zeros with the larger period class of [theorem 17.3](#), so a global count without a phase quotient would be a different and generally infinite assertion.

12 Support-controlled lifting of trigonometric zero clusters

This section specializes the positive-support philosophy of [\[2, 3\]](#). The proof is polynomial, so that the geometric theory does not come to depend on their more substantial analytic division results. Let

$$T_0(z) = \sum_{k=-n}^n a_k E(ikz), \quad a_k \in \mathbb{C}, \quad a_{-n}a_n \neq 0,$$

be an ordinary trigonometric polynomial, perturbed to $T(z) = \sum_k (a_k + e_k) E(ikz)$ with $e_k \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{C}}$, possibly zero, and let $S \subset \Gamma_{>0}$ be the union of the supports of the nonzero e_k .

Theorem 12.1 (Exact cluster multiplicity and coefficient support). *Suppose $\theta_0 \in \mathbb{C}$ is an ordinary zero of T_0 of multiplicity m , and put $u_0 = e^{i\theta_0}$. Then T has exactly m zeros, counted with multiplicity, in the complex infinitesimal monad $\theta_0 + \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{C}}$. Normalize the algebraized polynomial [equation \(11.2\)](#)*

to be monic; its unique monic factor A collecting the roots in $u_0 + \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{C}}$ has degree m and reduces to $(U - u_0)^m$, and the coefficients of $A - (U - u_0)^m$, and of the complementary factor minus its ordinary reduction, are supported in $S^* \setminus \{0\}$.

If θ_0 is real, both T_0 and T are real on finite real arguments, and $m = 1$, then the unique lifted zero is real. No corresponding reality conclusion is asserted for an arbitrary multiple zero.

Proof. Divide $P(U) = \sum (a_k + e_k)U^{k+n}$ by $a_n + e_n$; the inverse leading coefficient is an ordinary nonzero scalar times a geometric series in an infinitesimal, so the normalized perturbation has support in S^* by [theorem 2.2](#). Its ordinary reduction has the coprime monic factorization $P_0 = A_0 B_0$ with $A_0 = (U - u_0)^m$ and $B_0(u_0) \neq 0$. Seek monic factors $A = A_0 + \Delta A$, $B = B_0 + \Delta B$ of the same degrees with positive-support corrections. The finite-dimensional ordinary linear map

$$(X, Y) \mapsto XB_0 + A_0Y, \quad \deg X < m, \quad \deg Y < 2n - m, \quad (12.1)$$

is an isomorphism onto the polynomials of degree below $2n$: its kernel is zero by coprimality and the degree restrictions, and the dimensions agree.

At a positive exponent $\nu \in S^*$ the coefficient of $AB = P$ is a linear equation with map [equation \(12.1\)](#), whose right-hand side is the prescribed coefficient of $P - P_0$ minus the already determined coefficient of $\Delta A \Delta B$; in that product the two exponents are positive and strictly below ν . Transfinite recursion on the well-ordered monoid S^* therefore constructs the factors, each equation involving only finitely many terms by [theorem 2.2](#), and the same recursion proves uniqueness. *This is a coefficient recursion, not a convergence claim for a Newton sequence*; by [theorem 2.3\(i\)](#) no valuation-improvement argument would be available.

Translate $U = u_0 + H$. Then $A(u_0 + H)$ is monic of degree m with all lower coefficients infinitesimal, and every one of its roots is infinitesimal: if a root h were appreciable or infinite, dividing its equation by h^m would give 1 plus a finite sum of infinitesimals equal to zero. Its m roots exist in an algebraically closed divisible Hahn workspace, and the complementary factor cannot vanish at $u_0 + h$ for infinitesimal h , its standard part there being $B_0(u_0) \neq 0$. The local bijection $U \mapsto \theta_0 - i \operatorname{Log}_{\mathfrak{m}}(U/u_0)$ transports these roots to the specified angle monad, its nonzero linear term preserving multiplicity. Finally conjugation preserves a real trigonometric equation and the monad of a real θ_0 ; when there is exactly one root, that root must be fixed by conjugation. $\square$

The support bound belongs to the factor coefficients, not to individual roots. A root may require a fractional scale such as $t^{\lambda/2}$ even when the coefficient perturbation uses only t^{λ} — which is exactly what the tangency of [theorem 9.2](#) exhibits.

Example 12.2 (A double zero splitting off the real angle axis). The equation $1 - \operatorname{Cos} z = -\varepsilon$, with $\varepsilon > 0$ infinitesimal, has two zeros in the monad of zero,

$$z = \pm i \operatorname{arcosh}(1 + \varepsilon), \quad \operatorname{arcosh}(1 + \varepsilon) = \log_{\mathbf{No}}(1 + \varepsilon + \sqrt{2\varepsilon + \varepsilon^2}),$$

since $\operatorname{Cos}(iy) = \cosh y$. They have valuation $\frac{1}{2}v(\varepsilon)$ and are *not* real. This is the complex continuation of the disappearance of real intersections after tangency in [theorem 9.2](#), and the strip counterpart of the negative- τ case of [theorem 9.4](#).

13 Finite Fourier calculus and positivity on the surreal circle

Nothing in this section concerns an uncontrolled infinite Fourier series. The number of frequencies and of sample points is an ordinary finite integer, while the coefficients themselves may have arbitrarily complicated set-sized surreal supports.

13.1 Exact quadrature by roots of unity

Let $M \in \mathbb{N}_{>0}$ be ordinary and $\zeta = \text{cis}(2\pi/M)$, an ordinary primitive M th root of unity by [theorem 4.3](#). For every integer k ,

$$\frac{1}{M} \sum_{j=0}^{M-1} \zeta^{jk} = \begin{cases} 1, & M \mid k, \\ 0, & M \nmid k, \end{cases} \quad (13.1)$$

a finite geometric-sum identity, therefore unchanged over $\mathbf{SC}$.

Theorem 13.1 (Finite Fourier inversion, sampling, and Parseval). *Let $T(u) = \sum_{k=-N}^N c_k u^k$ with $c_k \in \mathbf{SC}$ and let $M > 2N$. For any base direction $u_0 \in \mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$,*

$$c_k = \frac{1}{M} \sum_{j=0}^{M-1} T(u_0 \zeta^j) (u_0 \zeta^j)^{-k}, \quad |k| \leq N, \quad (13.2)$$

$$\frac{1}{M} \sum_{j=0}^{M-1} |T(u_0 \zeta^j)|^2 = \sum_{k=-N}^N |c_k|^2. \quad (13.3)$$

More generally, for arbitrary $z_0, \dots, z_{M-1} \in \mathbf{SC}$ and $\hat{z}_k = \frac{1}{M} \sum_j z_j \zeta^{-jk}$,

$$z_j = \sum_{k=0}^{M-1} \hat{z}_k \zeta^{jk}, \quad \sum_{j=0}^{M-1} |z_j|^2 = M \sum_{k=0}^{M-1} |\hat{z}_k|^2. \quad (13.4)$$

Thus M exact samples determine every coefficient, even when the coefficients or the base direction have infinitesimal parts.

Proof. Insert the finite Laurent sum into [equation \(13.2\)](#): distinct frequency differences have absolute value at most $2N < M$, so [equation \(13.1\)](#) kills every off-diagonal term. Multiplying T by its conjugate and applying the same identity gives [equation \(13.3\)](#). For [equation \(13.4\)](#), substitute the definition of $\hat{z}_k$, use the geometric-sum identity for inversion, and substitute the inversion formula and its conjugate into $\sum_j z_j \bar{z}_j$. Every sum is finite and $\bar{\zeta} = \zeta^{-1}$, so no support or convergence condition arises. $\square$

All nonzero terms in the norm identity are positive surreals; *Fourier cancellation cannot destroy energy at a hidden infinitesimal order*. Exact coefficient recovery is quite different from testing only the signs of the sample values: in [theorem 13.6](#) below, every ordinary-angle sample is positive, yet the exact sample values still contain the infinitesimal information, and the reconstructed polynomial exposes its negative windows.

13.2 Coefficientwise integration and Parseval

For an ordinary analytic f with primitive F on a real interval and finite endpoints $a = a_0 + \varepsilon$, $b = b_0 + \eta$, define the lifted integral by

$$\begin{aligned} \int_a^b f^\sharp(\theta) d\theta &= F^\sharp(b) - F^\sharp(a) \\ &= \int_{a_0}^{b_0} f(t) dt + \sum_{m \geq 1} \frac{F^{(m)}(b_0)}{m!} \eta^m - \sum_{m \geq 1} \frac{F^{(m)}(a_0)}{m!} \varepsilon^m, \end{aligned} \quad (13.5)$$

the constant of the primitive cancelling. More generally a *uniformly supported* family $F(\theta) = \sum_{\gamma} t^{\gamma} f_{\gamma}(\theta)$ along an ordinary parameter interval — that is, an element of the ring (R1) of [section 1.3](#), with one well-ordered support and all coefficient functions analytic on that one ordinary interval — is integrated coefficientwise, $\int_a^b F = \sum_{\gamma} t^{\gamma} \int_{a_0}^{b_0} f_{\gamma}$, with the same endpoint corrections. This convention is not a definition of an unrestricted Riemann integral on all surreal functions, and other surreal integration frameworks have substantially different scope and hypotheses [\[15\]](#). In particular

$$\frac{1}{2\pi} \int_0^{H 2\pi} \text{cis}(k\theta) d\theta = \begin{cases} 1, & k = 0, \\ 0, & k \neq 0, \end{cases} \quad k \in \mathbb{Z}, \quad (13.6)$$

where the ordinary coefficient integral is the usual real or complex integral; its Hahn assembly is not an ordinary Riemann limit over the full class interval.

Theorem 13.2 (Finite Fourier identities over **SC**). *If $F(\theta) = \sum_{k=-n}^n f_k \text{cis}(k\theta)$ and $G(\theta) = \sum_{k=-m}^m g_k \text{cis}(k\theta)$, extending coefficients by zero where needed, then*

$$f_j = \frac{1}{2\pi} \int_0^{H 2\pi} F(\theta) \text{cis}(-j\theta) d\theta, \quad (13.7)$$

$$\frac{1}{2\pi} \int_0^{H 2\pi} F(\theta) \overline{G(\theta)} d\theta = \sum_k f_k \bar{g}_k, \quad \frac{1}{2\pi} \int_0^{H 2\pi} |F(\theta)|^2 d\theta = \sum_k |f_k|^2, \quad (13.8)$$

the last expression being positive unless $F = 0$. For a real trigonometric polynomial $P(\theta) = a_0 + \sum_{k=1}^n (a_k \cos k\theta + b_k \sin k\theta)$ the same convention gives

$$\frac{1}{2\pi} \int_0^{H 2\pi} P(\theta)^2 d\theta = a_0^2 + \frac{1}{2} \sum_{k=1}^n (a_k^2 + b_k^2). \quad (13.9)$$

Proof. Expand the finite sums, use $\overline{\text{cis}(k\theta)} = \text{cis}(-k\theta)$, and apply [equation \(13.6\)](#); every operation on the frequency indices is finite. Positivity follows from the ordering of **No** and positivity of each squared norm. Multiplication by fixed surreal constants is legitimate because Hahn products have finite convolution at each exponent. $\square$

These identities remain valid for infinite and for infinitesimal coefficients. *They do not establish convergence or completeness for an unrestricted infinite Fourier series.* In particular, infinitely many ordinary Fourier summands at the same Hahn exponent do not form a strongly summable family merely because the corresponding real Fourier series converges.

13.3 Dirichlet and Fejér kernels, and why they are not an approximation theorem

Finite geometric sums and [theorem 3.1](#) give

$$D_N(\theta) = \sum_{k=-N}^N \text{cis}(k\theta) = \frac{\sin((N + \frac{1}{2})\theta)}{\sin(\theta/2)}, \quad (13.10)$$

$$K_N(\theta) = \frac{1}{N+1} \left| \sum_{j=0}^N \text{cis}(j\theta) \right|^2 = \frac{1}{N+1} \left(\frac{\sin((N+1)\theta/2)}{\sin(\theta/2)} \right)^2, \quad (13.11)$$

the quotient formulas being used away from $\theta \in 2\pi\mathbb{Z}$, where the finite sums give the removable values $D_N = 2N + 1$ and $K_N = N + 1$. In particular $K_N \geq 0$ at every finite surreal angle, with normalized mean $\mathcal{M}(K_N) = 1$, where $\mathcal{M}(T) = c_0$ is the rotation-invariant normalized mean, equal to the quadrature average whenever $M > N$ and, after expanding the finitely many coefficients into normal form, to $\frac{1}{2\pi} \int_0^{H^{2\pi}} T$. These are exact algebraic positivity and normalization statements. *They are not, by themselves, a fine-topological approximation theorem as N grows.* For a fixed nonzero infinitesimal θ , every ordinary finite N still has $(N + 1)\theta$ infinitesimal, so $K_N(\theta) \sim N + 1$, not the ordinary fixed-nonzero-real-angle behaviour. One must specify a coefficient topology or another asymptotic framework before formulating any infinite Fourier convergence theorem.

13.4 Fejér–Riesz factorization with surcomplex coefficients

The classical Fejér–Riesz theorem factors a nonnegative trigonometric polynomial as a squared modulus; see [12] for its established context. *The theorem below is a real-closed-field extension of that classical result, not a claim of a new spectral-factorization theorem.* Its relevance here is that the positivity hypothesis must range over surreal, not merely ordinary, directions, and that coefficients and zeros may carry arbitrarily fine surreal scales while the factorization stays finite and exact.

Lemma 13.3 (Nonnegative polynomials over a real closed field). *Let F be real closed, $K = F[i]$, and $p \in F[t]$ nonnegative at every $t \in F$. Then there is $q \in K[t]$ with $p(t) = q(t)\bar{q}(t)$ for all $t \in F$, and $\deg q = \frac{1}{2} \deg p$ when $p \neq 0$.*

Proof. For $p = 0$ take $q = 0$. Otherwise factor p over F into real linear factors and irreducible quadratics. Every real root has even multiplicity: an odd multiplicity would change the sign across that root, as is seen by taking a sufficiently small increment avoiding the finitely many other roots. The leading constant is positive, and each monic irreducible quadratic is $(t - a)^2 + b^2$ with $b > 0$. Take one factor $t - a - ib$ from each conjugate pair, half the multiplicity of each real linear factor, and the positive square root of the leading constant; their product is q . $\square$

Theorem 13.4 (Surcomplex Fejér–Riesz theorem). *Let $T(\theta) = \sum_{k=-n}^n c_k \operatorname{cis}(k\theta)$ with $c_{-k} = \bar{c}_k$ and $c_k \in \mathbf{SC}$. The following are equivalent.*

1. $T(\theta) \geq 0$ for every finite surreal angle θ , equivalently $T(u) \geq 0$ for every $u \in \mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$.
2. There is $Q(U) = \sum_{j=0}^n q_j U^j \in \mathbf{SC}[U]$ with

$$T(\theta) = |Q(\operatorname{cis} \theta)|^2 \quad \text{for every finite surreal } \theta. \quad (13.12)$$

If $T \neq 0$, then Q may be chosen with no zero in $|U| < 1$; with that choice and the normalization $Q(0) > 0$ it is unique.

Proof. (2) $\Rightarrow$ (1) is immediate. Conversely, use the rational parametrization [equation \(4.8\)](#) and form

$$p(t) = (1 + t^2)^n \sum_{k=-n}^n c_k C(t)^k. \quad (13.13)$$

Since $C(t) = (1 + it)^2/(1 + t^2)$ and $C(t)^{-1} = (1 - it)^2/(1 + t^2)$, the denominators cancel and p is a polynomial of degree at most $2n$, with real values and real coefficients by the Hermitian symmetry

of the c_k . The hypothesis and the surjectivity of the rational parametrization give $p(t) \geq 0$ for every $t \in \mathbf{No}$, so [theorem 13.3](#) gives $p(t) = |q(t)|^2$ with $q \in \mathbf{SC}[t]$ of degree at most n . Define

$$Q(U) = \left(\frac{1+U}{2}\right)^n q\left(\frac{U-1}{i(U+1)}\right), \quad (13.14)$$

a polynomial of degree at most n by the degree bound on q . For $U = C(t)$ one has $(1+U)/2 = 1/(1-it)$, hence $|Q(C(t))|^2 = |q(t)|^2/(1+t^2)^n = T(C(t))$. This proves equality at every unit point except possibly $U = -1$; on the circle, replacing conjugate powers by negative powers makes the difference a Laurent polynomial which, after multiplication by U^n , is an ordinary-degree polynomial with infinitely many roots, hence identically zero.

For the normalized form, let d be the actual degree, so $c_d, c_{-d} \neq 0$, and put $P(U) = U^d T(U)$, of degree $2d$ with nonzero constant term and satisfying the self-reciprocal identity

$$P(U) = U^{2d} \overline{P(1/\bar{U})}, \quad (13.15)$$

where the right side means coefficient conjugation and reciprocal substitution. Algebraic closedness pairs every root $\varsigma \neq 0$ with $1/\bar{\varsigma}$, preserving multiplicity. A root on the unit circle has even multiplicity: at a unit root u_0 use the nonsingular rational local parameter $U = u_0 C(t)$, under which the pullback of T is a real rational function with nonvanishing denominator; if its zero order were odd, its signs at sufficiently small positive and negative surreal t would be opposite — factor out the first nonzero power of t and bound the remaining finite polynomial terms by the leading coefficient — and one of those signs would be negative, contradicting the hypothesis. *The argument explicitly permits the test values t to be infinitesimal*, which is what makes it work over $\mathbf{No}$.

Now select, for each non-unit reciprocal pair, the root outside the unit disk with its multiplicity, and half the multiplicity of every unit root: d roots in all. Let Q_0 be their monic product. The degree- $2d$ polynomials $P(U)$ and $U^d Q_0(U) \overline{Q_0(1/\bar{U})}$ have the same roots with the same multiplicities and nonzero constant terms, so they differ by a nonzero constant $\varkappa$; on the circle this says $T = \varkappa |Q_0|^2$, and evaluating at a unit point away from the finite root set, where $T > 0$ and $|Q_0|^2 > 0$, gives $\varkappa \in \mathbf{No}_{>0}$. Set $Q = \sqrt{\varkappa} Q_0$ and multiply by a unit constant to make $Q(0) > 0$. Any factor with no zeros inside the disk must select exactly the same outside roots and half of each unit-root multiplicity, so two such factors differ by a unit scalar, and their positive values at zero force that scalar to be one. $\square$

The proof is finite algebra over a real closed field: no real compactness theorem, no Hilbert-space completion, and no limit of spectral factors.

Corollary 13.5 (Fourier coefficient bounds from positivity). *Under the nonnegativity hypothesis of [theorem 13.4](#),*

$$c_0 = \sum_{j=0}^n |q_j|^2, \quad |c_k| \leq c_0 \quad (-n \leq k \leq n),$$

and $c_0 > 0$ when $T \neq 0$. If $n \geq 1$ the highest coefficient satisfies the sharper bound $2|c_n| \leq c_0$.

Proof. Expanding [equation \(13.12\)](#) gives $c_k = \sum_{j=0}^{n-k} q_{j+k} \bar{q}_j$ for $k \geq 0$, and finite-dimensional Cauchy–Schwarz — proved over $\mathbf{No}$ by expanding a sum of squared norms — gives $|c_k|^2 \leq (\sum_j |q_{j+k}|^2)(\sum_j |q_j|^2) \leq c_0^2$. For $k = n$, $c_n = q_n \bar{q}_0$ and $2|q_n||q_0| \leq |q_n|^2 + |q_0|^2 \leq c_0$. $\square$

Example 13.6 (Ordinary-angle testing misses an infinitesimal negative window). Fix $0 < \varepsilon \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$ and put

$$T(\theta) = (\sin \theta - \varepsilon)^2 - \varepsilon^4, \quad (13.16)$$

a real-valued trigonometric polynomial of degree two. It is strictly positive at every *ordinary* real θ : if $\sin \theta \neq 0$ is an ordinary real, the square is a positive real leading term; if $\sin \theta = 0$, the value is $\varepsilon^2 - \varepsilon^4 > 0$. Nevertheless at the finite surreal angle $\theta_* = \arcsin \varepsilon$,

$$T(\theta_*) = -\varepsilon^4 < 0,$$

so no factorization [equation \(13.12\)](#) exists for this T . The negative window near zero is exactly

$$\arcsin(\varepsilon - \varepsilon^2) < \theta < \arcsin(\varepsilon + \varepsilon^2),$$

of width $2\varepsilon^2(1 + \vartheta)$ with $\vartheta \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$, centred to first order at an angle of scale ε ; there is a second such window near $\pi - \arcsin \varepsilon$. The four boundary angles are simple zeros and attain the bound of [theorem 11.1](#). The same phenomenon occurs with cosine: $(\cos \theta - \varepsilon)^2 - \varepsilon^4$ is positive at every ordinary real angle and equals $-\varepsilon^4$ at $\theta = \arccos \varepsilon$.

This is a concrete reason not to replace positivity on $\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$ by positivity of a real-angle trace, even at a fixed very small trigonometric degree. It does not contradict [theorem 2.5](#): the coefficients in [equation \(13.16\)](#) depend on a non-real infinitesimal parameter, so that polynomial is not a single ordinary real-coefficient analytic function. For contrast,

$$|u - (1 + \varepsilon)|^2 = \varepsilon^2 + 2(1 + \varepsilon)(1 - \cos \theta) \quad (u = \operatorname{cis} \theta)$$

is positive at every surreal direction, with exact minimum ε^2 at $u = 1$: a positive trigonometric polynomial whose positivity margin is genuinely infinitesimal.

14 Spherical trigonometry over No

The distinction between algebraic geometry and angle evaluation extends beyond the plane. This section and the next record two substantial analogues, proved from Gram identities, using only three-dimensional vectors and finite matrix operations.

Let $P, Q, R \in \mathbf{No}^3$ be linearly independent unit vectors and define the minor central side angles

$$a = \arccos(Q \cdot R), \quad b = \arccos(R \cdot P), \quad c = \arccos(P \cdot Q),$$

all in $(0, \pi)$ by [theorem 5.1](#). At P the unit tangent vectors toward Q and R are

$$T_{PQ} = \frac{Q - \cos c P}{\sin c}, \quad T_{PR} = \frac{R - \cos b P}{\sin b},$$

and $A \in (0, \pi)$ is their angle; define B, C cyclically.

Theorem 14.1 (Spherical cosine and sine laws). *With the above notation,*

$$\cos a = \cos b \cos c + \sin b \sin c \cos A, \quad (14.1)$$

$$\frac{\sin A}{\sin a} = \frac{\sin B}{\sin b} = \frac{\sin C}{\sin c} = \frac{|\det(P, Q, R)|}{\sin a \sin b \sin c}, \quad (14.2)$$

together with the cyclic cosine laws. On a sphere of arbitrary positive surreal radius ϱ the corresponding coherent minor arc lengths are $\varrho a, \varrho b, \varrho c$.

Proof. The tangent vectors are unit vectors perpendicular to P , and their dot product is

$$T_{PQ} \cdot T_{PR} = \frac{\cos a - \cos b \cos c}{\sin b \sin c},$$

which is [equation \(14.1\)](#). In the tangent plane the magnitude of the determinant of two unit tangent vectors is the sine of their angle; since P is a unit normal,

$$\sin A = |\det(P, T_{PQ}, T_{PR})| = \frac{|\det(P, Q, R)|}{\sin b \sin c},$$

the cross-product identity used here being a polynomial consequence of the Euclidean Gram determinant and therefore valid over **No**. Dividing by $\sin a$ and relabelling gives [equation \(14.2\)](#). Scaling the circle containing each great-circle arc gives the arc-length statement from [theorem 16.1](#). $\square$

Linear independence excludes great-circle degeneracy and makes every sine in a denominator nonzero. The theorem allows all three points to be infinitesimally close, so it includes spherical triangles on arbitrarily small angular scales, and equally spherical triangles on a sphere of infinite radius. *It is a family of metric identities under explicit nondegeneracy hypotheses, not a complete global geometric or measure-theoretic foundation for spherical geometry over **No**.*

15 Hyperbolic trigonometry in the full surreal disk

15.1 A disk metric including infinitesimal boundary distances

Let $\mathbb{D}_{\mathbf{No}} = \{z \in \mathbf{SC} : |z| < 1\}$. Unlike the ordinary-disk thickening used in some coherent analytic statements, this disk includes points infinitesimally inside the unit circle whose standard parts lie on its boundary. For $a \in \mathbb{D}_{\mathbf{No}}$ set

$$\varphi_a(z) = \frac{z - a}{1 - \bar{a}z}, \quad (15.1)$$

whose denominator is nonzero because $|\bar{a}z| < 1$. Direct expansion gives

$$1 - |\varphi_a(z)|^2 = \frac{(1 - |a|^2)(1 - |z|^2)}{|1 - \bar{a}z|^2} > 0, \quad (15.2)$$

so φ_a is a disk automorphism with inverse $(w + a)/(1 + \bar{a}w)$; rotations are disk automorphisms as well. Define

$$\varrho(z, w) = \left| \frac{z - w}{1 - \bar{w}z} \right|, \quad d_H(z, w) = \log_{\mathbf{No}} \frac{1 + \varrho(z, w)}{1 - \varrho(z, w)} = 2 \operatorname{artanh} \varrho(z, w). \quad (15.3)$$

Proposition 15.1 (Disk invariance and metric properties). *The quantities ϱ and d_H are invariant under rotations and under the maps φ_a , and d_H is an **No**-valued metric on $\mathbb{D}_{\mathbf{No}}$.*

Proof. Invariance of ϱ follows by substituting [equation \(15.1\)](#), putting differences over common denominators and cancelling absolute values; invariance of d_H follows. Symmetry, positivity and separation of points follow from the definition and [equation \(15.2\)](#). For the triangle inequality move the middle point to zero: if $|z| = r$, $|w| = s$ and the angle between them is θ , then

$$\varrho(z, w)^2 = \frac{r^2 + s^2 - 2rs \cos \theta}{1 + r^2 s^2 - 2rs \cos \theta} \leq \left(\frac{r + s}{1 + rs} \right)^2,$$

since for fixed r, s the left-hand ratio, written as $1 - (1 - r^2)(1 - s^2)/(1 + r^2s^2 - 2rs \cos \theta)$, is largest when $\cos \theta = -1$. Applying the increasing logarithm and using

$$\frac{1 + (r + s)/(1 + rs)}{1 - (r + s)/(1 + rs)} = \frac{1 + r}{1 - r} \cdot \frac{1 + s}{1 - s}$$

gives $d_H(z, w) \leq d_H(z, 0) + d_H(0, w)$. $\square$

At a vertex A the hyperbolic angle between the sides towards B and C is the Euclidean angle between $\varphi_A(B)$ and $\varphi_A(C)$. This is invariant under disk automorphisms: after moving the vertex to zero, the remaining automorphism fixing zero is a rotation, as direct algebra with the fractional-linear formulas shows; equivalently the nonzero derivative $\varphi'_a(z) = (1 - |a|^2)/(1 - \bar{a}z)^2$ preserves angles. *All these angles are finite, even when their side distances are infinite.*

15.2 Hyperbolic cosine and sine laws

Theorem 15.2 (Hyperbolic triangle laws over $\mathbf{No}$). *Let A, B, C be distinct points of $\mathbb{D}_{\mathbf{No}}$ not on one hyperbolic line, with $a = d_H(B, C)$, $b = d_H(C, A)$, $c = d_H(A, B)$ and hyperbolic interior angles $\alpha, \beta, \gamma \in (0, \pi)$. Then*

$$\cosh a = \cosh b \cosh c - \sinh b \sinh c \cos \alpha, \quad (15.4)$$

$$\frac{\sin \alpha}{\sinh a} = \frac{\sin \beta}{\sinh b} = \frac{\sin \gamma}{\sinh c}. \quad (15.5)$$

The distances a, b, c may be infinite.

Proof. Move A to zero and rotate B to $r > 0$, writing $C = s \operatorname{cis} \alpha$ after a possible orientation reversal. Here $r = \tanh(c/2)$ and $s = \tanh(b/2)$, so $\cosh c = (1 + r^2)/(1 - r^2)$ and $\sinh c = 2r/(1 - r^2)$, similarly for b . With $q = \varrho(B, C)$,

$$q^2 = \frac{r^2 + s^2 - 2rs \cos \alpha}{1 + r^2s^2 - 2rs \cos \alpha}, \quad \cosh a = \frac{1 + q^2}{1 - q^2},$$

and substitution yields $\cosh a = ((1 + r^2)(1 + s^2) - 4rs \cos \alpha)/((1 - r^2)(1 - s^2))$, which is [equation \(15.4\)](#); by invariance the same calculation applies at every vertex. For the sine law set $X = \cosh a$, $Y = \cosh b$, $Z = \cosh c$; the cosine law gives

$$\sin^2 \alpha = \frac{1 + 2XYZ - X^2 - Y^2 - Z^2}{(Y^2 - 1)(Z^2 - 1)}.$$

Dividing by $\sinh^2 a = X^2 - 1$ produces an expression symmetric in a, b, c , so the squares of all three ratios in [equation \(15.5\)](#) agree; the ratios being strictly positive, the unsquared equality follows. $\square$

Example 15.3 (An infinitely distant point inside the disk). For $0 < \varepsilon \in \mathbf{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$ and $z = 1 - \varepsilon$,

$$d_H(0, z) = \log_{\mathbf{No}} \frac{2 - \varepsilon}{\varepsilon} = -\log_{\mathbf{No}} \varepsilon + \log 2 + \log_{\mathbf{No}}(1 - \varepsilon/2),$$

which is infinite, the last logarithm being a strongly summable infinitesimal series. *No value of sine or cosine at an infinite real circular angle is required to obtain either this distance or the triangle laws.*

Remark 15.4 (A second model, not restated). The same two laws can be proved in the Lorentz hyperboloid model $\mathbb{H}_{\mathbf{No}}^2 = \{P \in \mathbf{No}^3 : L(P, P) = 1, P_0 > 0\}$ with $L(P, Q) = P_0Q_0 - P_1Q_1 - P_2Q_2$ and $a = \operatorname{arcosh} L(Q, R)$ etc., by the Lorentz Gram-determinant computation that proves [theorem 14.1](#): the tangent vectors $T_{PQ} = (Q - \cosh c P)/\sinh c$ have L -norm -1 , their $-L$ inner product is $(\cosh b \cosh c - \cosh a)/(\sinh b \sinh c)$, and the Lorentz Gram matrix of P, T_{PQ}, T_{PR} has determinant $\sin^2 \alpha$, giving $\sin \alpha = |\det(P, Q, R)|/(\sinh b \sinh c)$. We do not restate the theorem in that model: it is the same pair of identities, and one model suffices. What the hyperboloid form makes visible is that $L(P, Q) \geq 1$ with equality only for $P = Q$ — from $L(P, Q) \geq \sqrt{1+p^2}\sqrt{1+q^2} - pq \geq 1$ and $(1+p^2)(1+q^2) - (1+pq)^2 = (p-q)^2$ — so the distances are genuinely positive. Unlike the circular functions, the hyperbolic functions use the ordered real surreal exponential *without* discarding a purely infinite part, so infinite distances represent genuine large hyperbolic separation while the angles between tangent directions remain finite.

16 Coherent arc length, sector area, and the limit pitfall

Theorem 16.1 (Circle length and sector area at every radius). *For $O \in \mathbf{SC}$, $R \in \mathbf{No}_{>0}$ and finite $a \leq b$, consider the unwrapped parametrized arc $z(\theta) = O + R \operatorname{cis} \theta$, $a \leq \theta \leq b$. Its coherent arc length, computed from its speed with [equation \(13.5\)](#), is $R(b-a)$, and its oriented sector area about O is $R^2(b-a)/2$. These count turns according to the chosen unwrapped interval; in particular one turn has coherent circumference $2\pi R$ and the disk has area πR^2 .*

Proof. One has $z'(\theta) = iR \operatorname{cis} \theta$, so $|z'| = R$, and the integral of this constant is $R(b-a)$, including the infinitesimal endpoint corrections. The usual parametrized sector functional has integrand $\frac{1}{2} \operatorname{Im}(\overline{z-O} z') = R^2/2$, whose integral is $R^2(b-a)/2$. All expressions are finite algebraic combinations of a fixed surreal scalar with scalar-lifted trigonometric functions, so their coefficientwise integrals have valid common support in the ring (R1); the chosen primitives are $R\theta$ and $R^2\theta/2$, and a change of their one global additive constant cancels at the endpoints. $\square$

As a related contour identity, direct parametrization gives $\int_{|z-O|=R}^H \frac{dz}{z-O} = 2\pi i$. *This is a coherent contour functional, not an assertion about ordinary paths being connected in the full fine topology*, and the word “coherent” is part of the definition: no Riemann-integral theory for every fine-continuous class function is being claimed, nor any ordinary real-parameter fine-continuous traversal of a surreal circle, which [theorem 2.4](#) forbids. For an infinitesimal positive central angle δ , arc and chord are relatively equivalent, $2R \sin(\delta/2) \sim R\delta$, with quadratic relative discrepancy, independently of whether R is tiny or enormous; and for a simple arc of angular span $\delta \in [0, \pi]$ the chord comparison reads $\frac{2}{\pi}L \leq \text{chord} \leq L$.

Proposition 16.2 (Failure of fine convergence of inscribed perimeters). *Let $R > 0$ be any surreal radius and let $P_n = 2nR \sin(\pi/n)$, $n = 3, 4, \dots$, be the perimeters of the ordinary finite regular inscribed polygons of [theorem 7.5](#). The sequence does not converge to $2\pi R$ in the fine topology, and the set $\{P_n : n \geq 3\}$ has no least upper bound in $\mathbf{No}$.*

Proof. The ordinary real numbers $q_n = P_n/R = 2n \sin(\pi/n)$ satisfy $q_n < 2\pi$ and converge to 2π in $\mathbb{R}$. For any positive surreal infinitesimal η the positive ordinary gap $2\pi - q_n$ exceeds η for every n , so $2\pi R - P_n > R\eta$ for every n , ruling out fine convergence. An infinite upper bound for the q_n cannot be least, because 2π is a smaller upper bound; a finite candidate with standard part below 2π is not an upper bound by ordinary real convergence; a candidate with standard part above 2π

can be decreased; and every finite candidate with standard part exactly 2π can be decreased by a positive infinitesimal and remain an upper bound, each ordinary gap still exceeding any such correction. Multiplication by R is an order isomorphism and preserves the conclusion. $\square$

Thus the circumference formula of [theorem 16.1](#) is a genuine coherent-integration theorem. *It must not be justified by importing a real supremum or a real sequence limit into **No** without specifying the interpretation.* This example identifies exactly which classical limiting step may not be transplanted.

17 Infinite real phases: a canonical choice, its classification, and two obstructions

17.1 Why the Maclaurin series is not the definition

For a nonzero infinitely large $x \in \mathbf{No}$ one has $v(x) < 0$, and the terms of the formal sine series have valuations $v((-1)^n x^{2n+1}/(2n+1)!) = (2n+1)v(x)$, a strictly *decreasing* sequence. Their supports cannot have a well-ordered union, so that family is not strongly summable and merely writing its formal expression defines nothing. At a finite argument with nonzero real standard part the direct Maclaurin family also fails to be strongly summable, its ordinary terms repeatedly contributing at exponent zero; this is exactly why [equation \(3.1\)](#)–[equation \(3.2\)](#) evaluate the real centre first in ordinary analysis and sum only the infinitesimal corrections. Failure of direct strong summability at a real argument is not a failure of the canonical finite lift.

17.2 The finite-part projection and the canonical normalization

Every real surreal decomposes uniquely as

$$x = p + r + \varepsilon, \quad p \in \Pi, \quad r \in \mathbb{R}, \quad \varepsilon \in \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}, \quad (17.1)$$

where Π consists of zero and the normal forms supported entirely at negative t -exponents, whose nonzero elements are purely infinite. Put $\text{fin}(x) = r + \varepsilon$, an *additive* projection $\mathbf{No} \rightarrow \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}$ with kernel Π , so that $\mathbf{No} = \Pi \oplus \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}$; the finite part retains both the ordinary constant and all infinitesimal terms, and is not merely the standard part. It is *not* multiplicative: $\text{fin}(\omega \cdot \omega^{-1}) = 1$ while $\text{fin}(\omega) \text{fin}(\omega^{-1}) = 0$. Reducing phases is thus compatible with adding angles, not with reducing the factors of their products.

The omnific integers have the normal-form description $\mathbf{Oz} = \Pi \oplus \mathbb{Z}$. They form a discrete subring: sums and products of purely infinite normal forms have no positive exponents and no constant term, and every positive element of $\mathbf{Oz}$ is at least 1. They form an integer part of $\mathbf{No}$: writing $x = p + f$ with f finite and choosing the ordinary integer n with $n \leq f < n+1$ (taking the appropriate side when f is infinitesimally adjacent to an integer) gives $p + n \leq x < p + n + 1$. Since Π is closed under multiplication and division by nonzero ordinary real constants,

$$2\pi\mathbf{Oz} = \Pi + 2\pi\mathbb{Z}, \quad \pi\mathbf{Oz} = \Pi + \pi\mathbb{Z}. \quad (17.2)$$

Ehrlich and Kaplan's additional characterization is that $\mathbf{Oz}$ is the unique integer part of $\mathbf{No}$ which is initial in its simplicity tree [8, Lemma 11.1]. *We use that published characterization to explain the word canonical; we do not need to reproduce its tree-theoretic proof.*

Definition 17.1 (Canonical real-surreal sine and cosine). For every $x \in \mathbf{No}$ set

$$\text{Sin } x = \sin(\text{fin } x), \quad \text{Cos } x = \cos(\text{fin } x), \quad \Phi(x) = \text{Cos } x + i \text{Sin } x.$$

This is exactly the integer-part normalization of [8, §11]: reducing x modulo $2\pi\mathbf{Oz}$ leaves the same finite representative modulo $2\pi\mathbb{Z}$ as reducing $\text{fin } x$. *The infinitesimal part is retained*, so for $p \in \Pi$ and infinitesimal ε one has $\text{Sin } p = 0$, $\text{Cos } p = 1$ and $\text{Sin}(p + \varepsilon) = \varepsilon - \varepsilon^3/6 + \dots$; the operation is not standard part. The notation is consistent with [theorem 10.2](#), with which it agrees wherever both apply.

Theorem 17.2 (Canonical global exponential and its period class). Define $\text{Exp}(x + iy) = \exp_{\mathbf{No}}(x)\Phi(y)$. Then $\text{Exp} : (\mathbf{SC}, +) \rightarrow (\mathbf{SC}^\times, \cdot)$ is onto, extends the ordinary complex exponential, and satisfies

$$\begin{aligned} \ker \text{Exp} &= 2\pi i \mathbf{Oz}, & |\text{Exp } z| &= \exp_{\mathbf{No}}(\text{Re } z), & \text{Exp}' &= \text{Exp}, \\ \text{Exp}(z + h) &= \text{Exp}(z) \text{Exp}_{\mathbf{m}}(h) & (h \in \mathbf{m}_{\mathbf{SC}}). \end{aligned} \quad (17.3)$$

Putting $\text{Sin } z = (\text{Exp}(iz) - \text{Exp}(-iz))/(2i)$ and $\text{Cos } z = (\text{Exp}(iz) + \text{Exp}(-iz))/2$ extends [theorem 17.1](#) to all of $\mathbf{SC}$, satisfies Euler's formula $\text{Exp}(iz) = \text{Cos } z + i \text{Sin } z$, the addition identities, $\text{Sin}^2 z + \text{Cos}^2 z = 1$, $\text{Sin}' = \text{Cos}$ and $\text{Cos}' = -\text{Sin}$; and for real surreal x, y ,

$$\text{Sin}(x + iy) = \text{Sin } x \cosh y + i \text{Cos } x \sinh y, \quad \text{Cos}(x + iy) = \text{Cos } x \cosh y - i \text{Sin } x \sinh y. \quad (17.4)$$

Moreover $(\text{Cos } z + i \text{Sin } z)^n = \text{Cos}(nz) + i \text{Sin}(nz)$ for every ordinary integer n , whence $\text{Cos}(nz) = T_n(\text{Cos } z)$ and $\text{Sin}((n+1)z) = \text{Sin } z U_n(\text{Cos } z)$ as polynomial identities, with no division problem at a sine zero.

Proof. Both fin and the finite phase map are additive-to-multiplicative in the appropriate sense, so Exp is a group homomorphism, and its modulus is immediate. For $w \neq 0$ write $w = \rho \text{cis } \theta$ with θ finite ([theorem 4.2](#)); then $w = \text{Exp}(\log_{\mathbf{No}} \rho + i\theta)$. If $\text{Exp}(x + iy) = 1$ the modulus forces $x = 0$ and [theorem 4.2](#) forces $\text{fin}(y) \in 2\pi\mathbb{Z}$, so [equation \(17.1\)](#) and [equation \(17.2\)](#) give the kernel. For infinitesimal $h = a + ib$ one has $\text{fin}(y+b) = \text{fin}(y) + b$, so the real exponential Taylor law [equation \(10.1\)](#) and the finite phase law give $\text{Exp}(z + h) = \text{Exp}(z) \text{Exp}_{\mathbf{m}}(a) \text{Exp}_{\mathbf{m}}(ib) = \text{Exp}(z) \text{Exp}_{\mathbf{m}}(h)$; this is a local surcomplex power series, proving fine-local analyticity and the derivative. Substitution gives the remaining identities, and expanding products by the exponential group law gives the addition and Pythagorean identities. $\square$

This calculation identifies the map with the canonical surcomplex exponential of [8, Theorem 11.1]. *The local power-series argument establishes the fine-local analytic property needed here without asserting uniqueness from a differential equation.*

Corollary 17.3 (Zero classes and periods). On the full surcomplex plane,

$$\{z : \text{Sin } z = 0\} = \pi\mathbf{Oz}, \quad \{z : \text{Cos } z = 0\} = \pi/2 + \pi\mathbf{Oz}.$$

All these zeros are real surreals and are simple as fine-analytic zeros. The period class of Sin , of Cos and of the pair is $2\pi\mathbf{Oz}$. Hence 2π is the least positive period, but the period class is not the cyclic group $2\pi\mathbb{Z}$: it contains every purely infinite real surreal.

Proof. $\text{Sin } z = 0$ says $\text{Exp}(2iz) = 1$, so $2iz \in 2\pi i \mathbf{Oz}$; for cosine use $\text{Cos } z = \text{Sin}(z + \pi/2)$. At a sine zero $\text{Cos}^2 z = 1$, so the derivative is nonzero. A common period is exactly an element T with $\text{Exp}(iT) = 1$, hence $T \in 2\pi\mathbf{Oz}$; if T is a period of sine alone, evaluating at 0 and $\pi/2$ gives $\text{Sin } T = 0$ and $\text{Cos } T = 1$, so it is a common period, and similarly for cosine. $\square$

This is compatible with every finite-angle geometric theorem above, whose angle ambiguity is still only $2\pi\mathbb{Z}$. It is also the first appearance of the phenomenon that [theorem 17.6](#) shows to be unavoidable.

17.3 Classification of all circular group-law extensions

Theorem 17.4 (All extensions of the finite phase). *For every group homomorphism $\chi : (\Pi, +) \rightarrow (\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No}), \cdot)$ the formula*

$$\Psi_\chi(p + f) = \chi(p) \operatorname{cis} f, \quad p \in \Pi, \quad f \in \mathcal{O}_\mathbb{R}, \quad (17.5)$$

defines a group homomorphism $\mathbf{No} \rightarrow \mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$ extending canonical finite-angle cis , and every such extension is uniquely of this form. Writing $\Psi_\chi = C_\chi + iS_\chi$ one obtains real-valued global sine and cosine satisfying the addition formulas, $C_\chi^2 + S_\chi^2 = 1$ and, in fine-local calculus, $S'_\chi = C_\chi$, $C'_\chi = -S_\chi$; for every $h \in \mathfrak{m}_\mathbb{R}$,

$$\Psi_\chi(x + h) = \Psi_\chi(x) \operatorname{Exp}_\mathfrak{m}(ih). \quad (17.6)$$

Each $E_\chi(x + iy) = \exp_{\mathbf{No}}(x)\Psi_\chi(y)$ is then an onto exponential homomorphism with $E'_\chi = E_\chi$ and $|E_\chi(z)| = \exp_{\mathbf{No}}(\operatorname{Re} z)$, and the corresponding global sine and cosine agree with the canonical strip functions of [section 10](#). The canonical choice $\chi = 1$ is exactly $\Psi_1 = \Phi$ of [theorem 17.1](#).

Proof. The direct-sum decomposition $\mathbf{No} = \Pi \oplus \mathcal{O}_\mathbb{R}$ and the two group laws prove that [equation \(17.5\)](#) is a homomorphism with the desired restriction. Conversely the restriction of any extension to Π determines χ , and its value at $p + f$ must be the product of its two restrictions. An infinitesimal increment belongs to the finite summand, which gives [equation \(17.6\)](#); expanding its right-hand side proves fine-local analyticity and the derivative identities. The proof of [theorem 10.1](#) applies verbatim to E_χ . $\square$

Example 17.5 (Any prescribed phase at ω). Let $\ell(p) \in \mathbb{R}$ be the coefficient of $\omega = t^{-1}$ in a purely infinite normal form. For any finite angle $\tau \in \mathcal{O}_\mathbb{R}$ the rule $\chi_\tau(p) = \operatorname{cis}(\tau\ell(p))$ is a character, because ℓ is additive and $\tau\ell(p)$ is finite, and its extension satisfies $\Psi_{\chi_\tau}(\omega) = \operatorname{cis} \tau$. Thus $S(\omega)$ and $C(\omega)$ can jointly be assigned *any* point of the surreal unit circle without changing the finite-angle theory, the addition laws, or the fine-local differential equations: phases $0, \pi/2, \pi$ give respectively $(C(\omega), S(\omega)) = (1, 0), (0, 1), (-1, 0)$. The corresponding complex family E_{χ_τ} , with $E_{\chi_0}(i\omega) = 1$ and $E_{\chi_\pi}(i\omega) = -1$, is the family already constructed in [1]; the character formulation exposes the entire freedom.

The trivial character gives the explicit normal-form extension $\Psi_1(x) = \operatorname{cis}(\operatorname{fin} x)$. *It is a possible convention, not a consequence of the local trigonometric axioms alone:* the classification above concerns group homomorphisms with the specified finite restriction, and is not a classification of all solutions of a differential equation. In particular it does not answer the separate robustness questions formulated in [8, §11] for more general initial fields and their integer parts. Conversely, the existence of these alternatives does not negate the canonical status of the initial-integer-part construction: canonicity there refers to that additional structure, not to uniqueness under the weaker analytic hypotheses. The two statements are complementary, and both are kept.

Theorem 17.6 (Infinite periods are unavoidable). *Every homomorphic extension in [theorem 17.4](#) has a kernel element in every coset $p + \mathcal{O}_\mathbb{R}$ of the finite subgroup; in particular, for every nonzero purely infinite p it has an infinite period. No extension agreeing with canonical finite-angle cis can have kernel exactly $2\pi\mathbb{Z}$, and the full surreal additive quotient $\mathbf{No}/2\pi\mathbb{Z}$ cannot be identified with $\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$ by any extension of the finite phase.*

Proof. Finite-angle cis is already surjective onto the whole unit circle ([theorem 4.2](#)), so choose a finite a with $\text{cis } a = \chi(p)^{-1}$; then $\Psi_\chi(p + a) = 1$. For nonzero purely infinite p , the element $p + a$ remains infinitely large in modulus. Being in the kernel of a group homomorphism makes it a period of the phase and of both coordinate functions. $\square$

This is stronger than a bare example of nonuniqueness, and stronger than the observation that one particular convention happens to create extra zeros: the ordinary statement “all periods are ordinary multiples of 2π ” is *incompatible* with extending the circular group law to all surreal real inputs while retaining its finite-angle meaning. The canonical choice of [theorem 17.3](#), whose period class is $2\pi\mathbf{Oz}$, is the instance of this phenomenon that the integer-part normalization produces; the theorem says no other choice escapes it. Each E_χ agrees with the canonical strip functions of [section 10](#), so all disagreement occurs strictly beyond that strip, and the real-period and zero sets outside it are correspondingly larger and choice-dependent.

17.4 Two coherence obstructions, both over the fixed-domain ring

Recall from [section 1.3](#) the ring (R1): a *common-domain Hahn-analytic* datum on an ordinary neighbourhood J of a point is a family $H = \sum_{\gamma \in S} h_\gamma t^\gamma$ with *one* well-ordered support S and ordinary real-analytic coefficients h_γ all defined on the *same* J ; evaluation at finite thickened points uses Taylor substitution, and ordinary holomorphic coefficients on a complex neighbourhood may be used instead. This is the real restriction of the coherence convention of [1], and it is strictly stronger than independently prescribing local power series on different monads. Both theorems in this subsection are statements about (R1)–(R2) *and about no other coefficient ring*; neither is asserted over the radius-free ring (R3) or the formal ring (R4).

Theorem 17.7 (No coherent infinite-frequency bounded sine). *Let S_χ be any global extension from [theorem 17.4](#) and let $L > 0$ be infinite. There is no common-domain Hahn-analytic H over the ring (R1) on an ordinary neighbourhood of zero whose evaluation satisfies $H^\sharp(x) = S_\chi(Lx)$ throughout its finite surreal thickening.*

Proof. For every ordinary real r in the neighbourhood the right-hand side lies in $[-1, 1]$, so every negative-exponent coefficient $h_\gamma(r)$ of $H(r)$ is zero by uniqueness of normal form and finiteness. This holds for all such r , so every negative-exponent coefficient function vanishes identically, and $H'(0) = \sum_\gamma h'_\gamma(0)t^\gamma$ has no negative exponents and is finite. But equality on the thickening implies equality of the fine derivatives at zero, and by [equation \(17.6\)](#), or by the chain rule with the constant scalar L ,

$$\left. \frac{d}{dx} S_\chi(Lx) \right|_{x=0} = L,$$

which is infinite. This contradiction proves the theorem. $\square$

The requirement that the coefficient functions share an ordinary neighbourhood is essential, which is to say: the theorem is about (R1)–(R2) and would be a different statement over any other ring. On a sufficiently small surreal scale every $S_\chi(Lx)$ still has its usual local power series; what fails is the compatibility of that infinite-frequency behaviour with a bounded, common-domain ordinary analytic coefficient description.

Theorem 17.8 (Why all-scale coherence forces a polynomial). *Suppose a global function f had, at every positive surreal radius ϱ , a Hahn-coherent chart over the ring (R1) for $w \mapsto f(\varrho w)$ on the infinitesimal thickening of one fixed ordinary neighbourhood of zero. Then f has only finitely many*

nonzero Taylor coefficients at zero. In particular neither the global exponential nor any global sine S_χ satisfies this condition.

Proof. Write $a_n = f^{(n)}(0)/n!$. The support of every $a_n \varrho^n$ is contained in the chart's single well-ordered support, because ordinary differentiation introduces no new Hahn exponents. If infinitely many a_n are nonzero, choose a positive surreal Λ larger than four times every $|v(a_n)|$ and take $\varrho = t^{-\Lambda}$. For successive nonzero indices $m > n$,

$$v(a_m \varrho^m) - v(a_n \varrho^n) = v(a_m) - v(a_n) - (m - n)\Lambda < 0,$$

producing an infinite decreasing sequence inside the alleged chart support, a contradiction. $\square$

The stronger polynomial classification, including global propagation of that finite germ, is proved in [1]; the displayed obstruction already suffices here, and *this is a restriction on uniform analytic descriptions over (R1), not a failure of the algebraic trigonometric identities or of the arbitrary-radius circle geometry.* A circle with enormous radius uses the map $R \text{cis} \theta$ with a *finite* angle; it does not require $w \mapsto \text{Sin}(Rw)$ to possess one Hahn support over an entire ordinary angular domain. It is also why the all-scale coherence category, in which entire functions are polynomials, is not the category being asserted for these global sine functions.

18 Conclusions and dependency audit

18.1 What the theory establishes

The central geometric conclusion is exact: *arbitrary surreal lengths do not require infinite circular angles.* The finite-angle quotient $\mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}/2\pi\mathbb{Z} \cong \mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No}) \cong \mathbb{T}(\mathbb{R}) \times \mathfrak{m}_{\mathbb{R}}$ describes every unit direction and remembers both an ordinary direction and its full infinitesimal displacement, and ordinary finite triangle constructions give the same identities at all scales, in the plane, on the sphere and in the hyperbolic disk. The infinitesimal part is not negligible data: it controls chord precision, nearly straight angles, the order of the triangle-inequality slack, the relative flatness threshold, and tangency splitting. Valuations then extract information with no ordinary numerical counterpart — angle hierarchies, flattening thresholds, and condition loss near collisions.

A second conclusion concerns the complex plane. The canonical strip $\mathcal{V}$ is large enough for a surjective complex sine with completely determined fibres and for the complete algebraic solution theory of every finite trigonometric polynomial; the passage $U = E(iz)$ turns periodic root questions into finite-degree polynomial questions. Positive-support coefficient lifting distinguishes stable finite algebras from unstable individual roots, and the three stability certificates of [section 9.5](#) cover three genuinely different questions. Positivity, too, has to be tested on the full surreal circle and not only on its ordinary real shadow.

Finally, full real-argument oscillation is a different problem. The Ehrlich–Kaplan integer-part normalization supplies one explicit answer; the character classification shows it is one member of a family all of whose members are fine-locally analytic, obey the same addition laws and the same differential equations, necessarily acquire infinite periods, and fail common-domain coherence at infinite frequency. *Thus neither nonexistence nor canonical uniqueness is an appropriate blanket claim about “surreal sine.”* The answer depends on the domain and on the analytic structure specified.

18.2 A dependency audit

Result family	Inputs actually used
Finite sine, cosine, circle logarithm	Ordinary analytic germs, normal forms, positive-support Neumann lemma
Triangle, circle and concurrence geometry	Ordered-field algebra, positive square roots, finite-angle circle parametrization
Valuation estimates, defect and flatness	Exact algebraic identities and unit-leading infinitesimal series
Tangency, cosine fold, coupled collision	Strong composition of square-root and inverse-sine germs at infinitesimal arguments
Conditioned root existence and stability	A finite rational tangent chart, polynomial intermediate values, a nonsingular residue root; no Newton-sequence convergence
Cluster lifting	Coprime polynomial factorization, a finite Sylvester map, transfinite coefficient recursion over S^*
Strip functions, hyperbolic disk, spherical laws	Gonshor exponential and logarithm, Gram determinants, plus the finite-angle theory
Trigonometric root bounds	Algebraic closedness and the strip exponential quotient
Fejér–Riesz factorization	Real closedness, rational circle parametrization, finite polynomial factorization
Finite Fourier identities	Finite geometric sums; the coefficientwise integral of the ring (R1) where an integral is used
Arc and sector formulas	The explicit primitive-based coefficientwise integral convention, ring (R1)
Infinite phase classification	The additive normal-form split $\mathbf{No} = \Pi \oplus \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}$ and circle surjectivity
Coherence obstructions	Ring (R1) only; normal-form uniqueness and one well-ordered support

No result uses a proper-class sum, assumes that a positive valuation increment is cofinal, or identifies

Noetherianity, division and residue theorems of [2, 3] are not assumed as black boxes anywhere.

18.3 Reproducible checks and their limits

The three source editions of this report carried accompanying Python scripts using exact SymPy algebra and formal power series, which between them check the Gram, rational-circle, Heron, circumradius, Euler and Ptolemy identities; the Cayley group law; Chebyshev formulas; the spread and triple-spread identities; flat-triangle, tangency and inverse-cosine coefficients; the coupled angular algebra after sine coordinates; the algebraization of trigonometric equations; line–circle formulas and the collision algebra; finite quadrature and Fourier convolution; a spectral-factor example; and the rational identities behind the spherical and hyperbolic laws. Those runs reported 67, 43 and 68 passing checks respectively.

These checks validate the finite algebra and selected Taylor coefficients occurring in the proofs. They do not implement the full surreal class, verify transfinite support arguments or recursions, establish real closedness, or machine-check any mathematical proof. The support lemma, the branch arguments and the proper-class distinctions are justified in the text, not inferred from symbolic experiments, and no proof-assistant verification is claimed.

18.4 What is not proved

The following non-claims are made in the body of the article and are collected here. They are specific to individual results and are not pooled into a single blanket disclaimer.

1. (*theorem 2.5.*) No general transfer of arbitrary infinite families of inequalities is asserted; in particular, coefficients that are themselves infinitesimal are not automatically covered by an ordinary real-coefficient sign argument. The uniqueness assertion is deliberately about the Taylor rule, not about arbitrary functions satisfying the same differential equation in the fine topology.
2. (*theorem 3.2.*) The proof does not infer global monotonicity from the sign of a fine derivative; such an inference would require additional hypotheses on a general surreal function.
3. (*theorem 3.3, theorem 5.5.*) The asymptotic equivalences are statements about a single arbitrary infinitesimal. They are stronger than standard-part equalities and do not mean that a sequence of real arguments converges in the fine topology.
4. (*theorem 5.2.*) The endpoint derivative of inverse sine does not exist as a surreal-valued derivative: its difference quotient grows beyond every fixed surreal bound as the increment becomes sufficiently small, and allowing infinitely large elements as derivative values does not repair this, because there is always a still smaller increment. Throughout, these statements are about differentiation of functions of a variable, not about a derivation on surreal numbers interpreted as transseries.
5. (*theorem 6.4.*) The usual side–side–angle ambiguity remains: a ray–circle intersection is a quadratic problem and may have zero, one or two admissible solutions; no additional infinite family of solutions appears merely because the coordinates are surreal.
6. (*equation (7.5).*) Quadrances and spreads forget orientation and distinguish neither an angle from its supplement nor a directed angle from its negative. That loss is useful for rational formulas but must be remembered.
7. (*theorem 7.2.*) A directed Menelaus or Ceva formula can be obtained in the same way after fixing signs, but is not needed for the present development.
8. (*theorem 7.4.*) Cyclic order is the order induced by finite representatives around the circle; it is not defined by fine-continuous motion of a real parameter. More generally, algebraic identities among finitely many vectors often survive unchanged, while any analytic interpretation of the associated angles must still be supplied.
9. (*theorem 5.4.*) Although cosine loses first-order information near zero, the full unit direction does not. At other angles one should use both coordinates, or a nonsingular tangent chart, rather than infer angular error solely from cosine error.
10. (*theorem 8.1.*) The conclusion about side valuations does not say that all three sides have equal valuation: a very short third side is possible.
11. (*theorem 8.4.*) The denominator $bc/(b+c)$ is essential. A defect that is small compared with the perimeter need not make the opposite angle close to π when one adjacent side is much shorter than the other.

12. (*theorem 9.2, theorem 9.9.*) The condition $e \prec \tau$ cannot be omitted from a uniform branch-matching theorem: $e = -\tau$ merges the roots and $e < -\tau$ destroys the two real intersections. Correspondingly the strict threshold $\sigma > 2\kappa$ cannot be weakened to equality uniformly near an extremum.
13. (*section 9.4.*) The dimension four of $\mathcal{B}_{s,u}$ is a *total* multiplicity of the entire finite zero set in the monad, not a claim that each individual simple root has a four-dimensional local algebra.
14. (*theorem 12.1.*) The support bound belongs to the factor coefficients, not to individual roots, which may require fractional scales; and no reality conclusion is asserted for an arbitrary multiple zero. The construction is a coefficient recursion, not a convergence claim for a Newton sequence.
15. (*theorem 11.2.*) The derivative statement bounds stationary angles; it does not invoke a general compactness or extreme-value theorem on a surreal interval.
16. (*theorem 13.2, equation (13.11).*) The finite Fourier identities establish no convergence or completeness for an unrestricted infinite Fourier series; infinitely many ordinary Fourier summands at one Hahn exponent do not form a strongly summable family merely because the corresponding real series converges. The Dirichlet and Fejér kernel identities are exact algebraic statements, not a fine-topological approximation theorem.
17. (*theorem 13.4.*) The theorem is a real-closed-field extension of a classical result, not a claim of a new spectral-factorization theorem. Multivariable trigonometric positivity is a different problem; no multivariable single-square theorem is asserted.
18. (*theorem 13.6.*) The example does not contradict [theorem 2.5](#): its coefficients depend on a non-real infinitesimal parameter, so the polynomial is not a single ordinary real-coefficient analytic function.
19. (*section 16.*) The coefficientwise arc-length convention is not an assertion that a nonconstant ordinary real-parameter path is continuous in the full fine topology, nor a definition of an unrestricted Riemann integral; other surreal integration frameworks have substantially different scope [15].
20. (*theorem 14.1, theorem 15.2.*) The spherical and hyperbolic sections give metric identities under explicit nondegeneracy hypotheses, not a complete global geometric or measure-theoretic foundation, and not a theory of hyperbolic area or of non-Archimedean geodesic completeness.
21. (*theorem 17.1, theorem 17.2.*) The global normalization agrees with the established Ehrlich–Kaplan construction and is not claimed as a new definition; the published characterization of $\mathbf{Oz}$ is used to explain the word canonical, and its tree-theoretic proof is not reproduced. The local power-series argument establishes fine-local analyticity without asserting uniqueness from a differential equation.
22. (*theorem 17.4.*) The classification concerns group homomorphisms with the specified finite restriction; it is not a classification of all solutions of a differential equation, and it does not answer the separate robustness questions formulated in [8, §11] for more general initial fields and their integer parts. It does not follow that defining a full-plane convention is impossible: the trivial-character convention is perfectly explicit. What fails is uniqueness from the stated analytic and algebraic axioms.

23. (*theorem 17.8, theorem 17.7.*) Both are restrictions on uniform analytic descriptions over the ring (R1) of [section 1.3](#), not failures of the algebraic identities or of arbitrary-radius circle geometry, and neither is asserted over the radius-free ring (R3) or the formal ring (R4). It is not claimed that a unique canonical value of circular sine at every infinite real argument follows from the finite-angle theory.
24. (*Global.*) No proper-class sum, no arbitrary infinite polygon, no full-class Riemann integral, no ordinary sequential Fourier convergence theorem, and no uniqueness theorem for all fine-analytic differential equations is asserted anywhere. The three supplied manuscripts are identified as unpublished supplied documents, not as published literature. The literature search behind this report was targeted rather than exhaustive: a proof of an analogue is not, by itself, evidence that its exact formulation is absent from all previous literature, and no priority claim and no claim to have resolved a named published conjecture is made.

A A compact formula sheet with domain reminders

For finite real θ , nonzero $z, w \in \mathbf{SC}$, $u, v \in \mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$ and an ordinary integer n :

$$\begin{aligned}
 z &= |z| \operatorname{cis} \operatorname{Arg} z && \text{with } \operatorname{Arg} z \in \mathcal{O}_{\mathbb{R}}/2\pi\mathbb{Z}, \\
 \cos \angle(z, w) &= \frac{\operatorname{Re}(\bar{z}w)}{|z||w|}, && \sin \angle(z, w) = \frac{\operatorname{Im}(\bar{z}w)}{|z||w|}, \\
 \operatorname{cis}(n\theta) &= (\operatorname{cis} \theta)^n, && \tan(\theta/2) = \frac{\sin \theta}{1 + \cos \theta}, \\
 |u - v| &= 2 \sin(\angle(u, v)/2), && \arctan t = \operatorname{Arg}(1 + it) \in (-\pi/2, \pi/2) \quad (t \in \mathbf{No}).
 \end{aligned}$$

The first argument is an angle class, and the sine in the directed-angle formula may be negative. In a triangle of positive area the interior sines are positive and

$$\begin{aligned}
 \alpha + \beta + \gamma &= \pi, & a^2 &= b^2 + c^2 - 2bc \cos \alpha, & a &= 2R \sin \alpha, \\
 \Delta^2 &= s(s-a)(s-b)(s-c), & r &= \Delta/s, & R &= abc/(4\Delta), \\
 \tan(\alpha/2) &= r/(s-a), & \ell_A &= \frac{2bc}{b+c} \cos(\alpha/2), & |O - I|^2 &= R(R - 2r), \\
 v(\Delta) &= v(b) + v(c) + v(d(\alpha)), & v(R) &= v(a) + v(b) + v(c) - v(\Delta).
 \end{aligned}$$

For $z = x + iy$ with finite x and arbitrary $y \in \mathbf{No}$,

$$\operatorname{Sin} z = \sin x \cosh y + i \cos x \sinh y, \quad E(iz) = \exp_{\mathbf{No}}(-y) \operatorname{cis} x.$$

For infinite real x , circular sine and cosine require an explicitly selected extension; the lowercase finite-angle notation alone does not specify their values, and every such extension has an infinite period.

B Worked formal series

All of the following are strongly summable for infinitesimal h or τ , with the indicated positive square root in the last line:

$$\begin{aligned}\arctan h &= h - \frac{h^3}{3} + \frac{h^5}{5} - \frac{h^7}{7} + O(h^9), \\ \arcsin h &= h + \frac{h^3}{6} + \frac{3h^5}{40} + \frac{5h^7}{112} + O(h^9), \\ \text{Log}_m(1+h) &= h - \frac{h^2}{2} + \frac{h^3}{3} - \frac{h^4}{4} + O(h^5), \\ \sqrt{1+h} &= 1 + \frac{h}{2} - \frac{h^2}{8} + \frac{h^3}{16} - \frac{5h^4}{128} + O(h^5), \\ \arccos(1-\tau) &= \sqrt{2\tau} \left(1 + \frac{\tau}{12} + \frac{3\tau^2}{160} + \frac{5\tau^3}{896} + \frac{35\tau^4}{18432} + O(\tau^5) \right).\end{aligned}$$

For example, if $h = t^\lambda + t^\mu$ with $0 < \lambda < \mu$, the first terms of $\sin h$ are obtained by substituting this finite sum into its power series, mixed terms such as $t^{2\lambda+\mu}$ being collected with every other term of the same exponent. *The displayed order in a polynomial truncation is not necessarily the order of all Hahn monomials:* if $\mu \gg \lambda$, arbitrarily many powers $t^{n\lambda}$ precede t^μ . The support convention handles this automatically and does not replace it by a single real small parameter.

C Notation and domain guide

Symbol	Meaning and domain
No , SC = No [i]	Surreal ordered class field and its complexification.
$t^\gamma = \omega^{-\gamma}$	Conway normal-form monomial; v the least support exponent, lc the leading complex coefficient, $v(0) = +\infty$.
$\mathcal{O}_\mathbb{R}, \mathfrak{m}_\mathbb{R}; \mathcal{O}_\mathbb{C}, \mathfrak{m}_\mathbb{C}$	Finite elements and infinitesimals of No and of SC .
st, fin	Standard part of a finite element; the additive projection retaining all nonnegative-exponent terms of any real surreal.
$a \prec b, a \sim b$	a/b infinitesimal; respectively $a/b - 1$ infinitesimal.
$\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No}), \mathbb{T}(\mathbb{R})$	The algebraic unit circle $\{u : u\bar{u} = 1\}$ and its ordinary counterpart; every point has finite coordinates.
$\sin, \cos, \text{cis}$	Taylor-lifted functions at finite real arguments; $\text{cis } \theta = \cos \theta + i \sin \theta$.
$C(t)$	The rational Cayley parametrization of the circle, never the cosine.
$\angle(u, v), d(\alpha)$	Angular metric on $\mathbb{T}(\mathbf{No})$; defect $\min\{\alpha, \pi - \alpha\}$ of an interior angle.
$h, \varepsilon, \tau, \delta$	Generic infinitesimal increment; generic positive infinitesimal; ramification/tangency parameter; triangle side gap $b + c - a$.
$\arctan, \arcsin, \arccos$	Real inverse branches with ranges $(-\pi/2, \pi/2)$, $[-\pi/2, \pi/2]$, $[0, \pi]$; the domain of $\arctan$ is all of No .
$a, b, c; \alpha, \beta, \gamma$	Triangle sides and opposite interior angles; the angles are finite even when the sides are not.
Δ, R, r, s	Area, circumradius, inradius, semiperimeter. In section 9.4 only, s and u denote the two coupled parameters instead.
$\exp_{\mathbf{No}}, \log_{\mathbf{No}}$	The Gonshor real exponential and logarithm.
$\text{Exp}_m, \text{Log}_m$	Infinitesimal exponential and logarithm between $\mathfrak{m}_\mathbb{C}$ and $1 + \mathfrak{m}_\mathbb{C}$.

Symbol	Meaning and domain
$\mathcal{H}, \mathcal{V}, E$	The two class strips and the strip exponential $E(x + iy) = \exp_{\mathbf{No}}(x) \text{cis } y$.
Sin, Cos, Tan	Canonical strip functions; after theorem 17.1 also the canonical global functions, with which they agree.
$\Pi, \mathbf{Oz} = \Pi \oplus \mathbb{Z}$	Purely infinite normal forms; the omnific integer part, whose finite elements are exactly $\mathbb{Z}$.
χ, Ψ_χ, E_χ	A phase character on Π , the resulting full-real-class phase, and the resulting full-plane exponential.
$\int^H$	Coefficientwise Hahn integral over the ring (R1), with analytic endpoint corrections; not a fine-topological Riemann integral.
(R1)–(R4)	Fixed-domain, common-domain germ, radius-free and formal coefficient rings of section 1.3 .
$\mathbb{Z}, n, N, M$	Ordinary integers and ordinary finite degrees or sample sizes, never an unspecified class of “surreal integers.”

References

- [1] *Surcomplex Analysis: Infinitesimal Calculus, Hahn-Coherent Holomorphy, and Contour Theory*. User-supplied unpublished manuscript, September 21, 2026, [surcomplex_analysis\(2\).tex](#). Used for normal-form conventions, strong summability, finite Taylor lifting, coherent integrals, the fine-local logarithm, and the distinction between fine-local and common-domain coherent analyticity. Its global fine-analytic exponentials are the explicit predecessors of the infinite-phase family of [theorem 17.5](#).
- [2] *Finite Geometry of Hahn-Coherent Surcomplex Zeros: Conservation of Multiplicity, Normal Forms, and Collision-Stable Residues*. User-supplied unpublished manuscript, September 21, 2026, in [surcomplex_finite_geometry.zip](#). Background for positive-support conservation of finite zero clusters and collision-stable residue pairings; its several-variable theorems are not prerequisites for the geometry here.
- [3] *Finite Intersections in Surcomplex Analysis: Support-Controlled Division, Residue Duality, and Sharp Root Stability*. User-supplied unpublished manuscript, September 21, 2026, in [surcomplex_intersections.zip](#). Its §9 treats conditioned root stability with the threshold $\sigma > 2\kappa$; the trigonometric specializations in [theorem 9.7](#) and [theorem 9.9](#) are proved independently here.
- [4] John H. Conway, *On Numbers and Games*, Academic Press, 1976; second edition, A K Peters, 2001. Normal forms, the ordered-field structure, and omnific integers.
- [5] Harry Gonshor, *An Introduction to the Theory of Surreal Numbers*, London Mathematical Society Lecture Note Series **110**, Cambridge University Press, 1986. [doi:10.1017/CBO9780511629143](#). Normal forms, real closedness, and the real exponential.
- [6] Norman L. Alling, *Foundations of Analysis over Surreal Number Fields*, North-Holland Mathematics Studies **141**, North-Holland, 1987.
- [7] Lou van den Dries and Philip Ehrlich, “Fields of surreal numbers and exponentiation,” *Fundamenta Mathematicae* **167** (2001), 173–188. [doi:10.4064/fm167-2-3](#). Erratum, *Fundamenta Mathematicae* **168** (2001), 295–297. The uses here are restricted analytic evaluation, real closedness and the exponential group law, not the ordinal estimates addressed by the erratum.
- [8] Philip Ehrlich and Elliot Kaplan, “Surreal ordered exponential fields,” *The Journal of Symbolic Logic* **86**, no. 3 (2021), 1066–1115. [doi:10.1017/jsl.2021.59](#); [arXiv:2002.07739](#). In particular §11: canonical trigonometric functions from an initial integer part, and canonical surcomplex exponentiation. The paper credits an earlier idea of using $\mathbf{Oz}$ for trigonometric functions to Martin Kruskal.

- [9] B. H. Neumann, “On ordered division rings,” *Transactions of the American Mathematical Society* **66** (1949), 202–252. The ordered-support summability lemma.
- [10] Bjorn Poonen, “Maximally complete fields,” *L’Enseignement Mathématique* (2) **39** (1993), 87–106. [Author’s full text](#). The algebraic-closure input is Corollary 4.
- [11] F. W. J. Olver et al., eds., *NIST Digital Library of Mathematical Functions*, Chapter 4, especially §§4.14, 4.21, 4.23–4.24. dlmf.nist.gov/4. Consulted September 21, 2026, for ordinary trigonometric identities and inverse-function expansions; the surreal domains and support arguments are supplied here.
- [12] Michael A. Dritschel and James Rovnyak, “The operator Fejér–Riesz theorem,” in *A Glimpse at Hilbert Space Operators, Operator Theory: Advances and Applications* **207**, Birkhäuser, 2010, 223–254. [arXiv:0903.3639](#). Cited for the established factorization problem and its classical context; the scalar real-closed-field proof used here is given in full.
- [13] Norman J. Wildberger, “Rotor coordinates and vector trigonometry,” *Journal for Geometry and Graphics* **21** (2017), no. 1, 89–106. [Publisher record](#).
- [14] Charles Gunn, “Rational trigonometry via projective geometric algebra,” 2014. [arXiv:1401.2371](#).
- [15] Ovidiu Costin and Philip Ehrlich, “Integration on the surreals,” *Advances in Mathematics* **452** (2024), article 109823. [arXiv:2208.14331](#). A separate integration framework, not identified with the elementary coefficientwise functional of [section 16](#).
- [16] Alessandro Berarducci and Vincenzo Mantova, “Surreal numbers, derivations and transseries,” *Journal of the European Mathematical Society* **20** (2018), 339–390. [doi:10.4171/JEMS/769](#). Cited to distinguish a derivation on the scalar field from the function derivatives used here.